

Trading Away the Machine: The Political Consequences of Trade Liberalization in Developing Countries

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Abstract

Over the last decades, trade liberalization has caused a major relocation of employment from developed to developing countries, yet we have little evidence on how this transformation has affected the politics of countries receiving these jobs. The conventional view is that voters will reward or punish the incumbent depending on how trade affects local economic conditions. I argue that this prediction does not generalize to developing countries, since it does not capture the role of clientelism, a key mechanism through which developing-world incumbents mobilize support. This paper shows that trade-driven economic gains can weaken incumbents by undermining their ability to mobilize voters through state-sponsored clientelism. A positive export shock that raises wages and private-sector employment reduces voters' economic dependence on the incumbent's clientelistic machines, allowing them to vote programmatically instead. I examine the political consequences of the North American Free Trade Agreement (NAFTA) in Mexico under the PRI, an incumbent party that relied heavily on clientelism. Two complementary empirical designs leveraging regional variation in crop suitability and pre-NAFTA industrial specialization show that pro-regime parties lost significantly more support in regions that were more exposed to post-NAFTA export gains. Consistent with the proposed mechanism, these losses are concentrated in municipalities where the regime's rural clientelistic machine was strongest. Moreover, higher exposure is also associated with lower enrollment in social welfare programs that the regime used for electoral mobilization. These findings show that free trade can play a major role in weakening clientelism in developing countries.

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1 Introduction

One of the most important economic transformations of recent decades has been the relocation of labor-intensive industries from the developed to the developing world. An extensive literature shows that this relocation had major political consequences in developed democracies: in regions where globalization has caused job losses and economic decline, voters have shifted away from incumbents and towards anti-establishment alternatives (Autor et al., 2020; Colantone and Stanig, 2018b; Margalit, 2011). However, this evidence only captures one side of globalization: in the developing world, globalization has created new employment opportunities and raised wages, but there exists little systematic evidence on the political consequences of these transformations. The conventional view is that citizens' response to trade liberalization is shaped by economic voting: voters will reward or punish incumbents based on how globalization affects local economic conditions. By this logic, a government whose trade liberalization creates jobs should be rewarded by voters, particularly in the regions that experience economic gains. In this paper, I show that this prediction is not generalizable because it fails to consider the role of clientelism¹.

I argue that trade liberalization can undermine the effectiveness of clientelism by reshaping the economic conditions under which clientelistic exchanges take place. Clientelistic machines generally target low-income voters whose economic insecurity makes their political support cheaper to secure (Stokes, 2005; Stokes et al., 2013; Hicken, 2011). In developing countries, where low-skill labor is relatively abundant, liberalization can create new employment and economic opportunities for the poor as labor-intensive industries relocate. As incomes rise, the marginal value of the modest handouts provided by clientelistic machines decreases (Frey, 2019, 2022; Stokes, 2005). Moreover, new employment opportunities give low-income voters outside options that reduce their dependence on clientelistic handouts, which undermines brokers' ability to punish defection by withdrawing benefits (Mares, 2015). Together, these channels weaken the electoral returns to clientelistic mobilization and result in reduced support for parties that rely heavily on clientelistic mobilization.

A downstream implication of this argument is that, contrary to the predictions of canonical models of economic voting, economic gains caused by trade can reduce support for incumbents by undermining their ability to mobilize voters through clientelism. Indeed, clientelism is predominantly an incumbent's strategy: incumbents can fund clientelistic mobilization with state resources that are generally unavailable to opposition parties. Thus, incumbent parties in the developing world are significantly more likely to rely on clientelistic mobilization compared to their opponents (Larreguy, 2013; Fergusson et al., 2022; Graham et al., 2026). In this sense, the weakening

¹Clientelism is a mobilization strategy in which voters receive targeted benefits, such as goods and services, in exchange for their vote (Stokes et al., 2013)

of clientelism can paradoxically cause incumbents to lose support in the regions that experience large trade-induced economic gains.

I test this argument by examining the political consequences of the North American Free Trade Agreement (NAFTA henceforth) in Mexico. For most of the 20th century, Mexico was ruled by the PRI—a catch-all party that leveraged its decades in government to build a broad clientelistic machine. While the government faced competition from opposition parties from the right (PAN) and the left (PRD), the PRI’s voter mobilization capacity ensured that opposition remained politically marginalized. In the early 1990s, declining economic conditions (Cameron and Tomlin, 2000; Lustig, 1998) and pressure from foreign actors (Cameron and Tomlin, 2000; Hufbauer and Schott, 1993) led President Carlos Salinas to negotiate a free trade agreement with the governments of Canada and the United States. NAFTA’s entry into force—which involved the phased elimination of all tariffs and non-tariff trade barriers between Mexico, Canada, and the USA—triggered an exports boom in Mexican manufacturing and agriculture (Romalis, 2007).

Two empirical analyses show that NAFTA-induced economic gains eroded the effectiveness of the regime’s clientelistic networks and caused it to lose significant support in exporting regions. I first focus on the Mexican manufacturing sector, which saw booming exports following NAFTA’s entry into force as labor-intensive industries relocated to Mexico (Romalis, 2007; Atkin, 2016). I leverage municipal-level data on pre-NAFTA industrial employment and the post-NAFTA shift in Mexican exports to the USA to build a shift-share variable identifying which Mexican regions were more exposed to the post-NAFTA exports boom. This variable is strongly correlated with the post-NAFTA increase in manufacturing employment but uncorrelated with pre-NAFTA electoral trends. I then use a difference-in-differences design to show that pro-regime parties lost significantly more support in regions more exposed to the post-NAFTA exports boom: a one standard deviation increase in shock intensity is associated with an approximately three percentage point decrease in the total vote share received by pro-government parties.

The second analysis evaluates the effect of NAFTA in rural municipalities, where the PRI’s clientelistic machine was strongest (Albertus et al., 2016; Fox, 1994). Agricultural liberalization had highly unequal consequences across rural Mexico: it benefited regions suitable for labor-intensive horticulture (i.e., hand-picked fruits and vegetables), but exposed regions suitable for staple crops (whose production can be easily mechanized) to increased import competition from American agricultural exports. To measure regional exposure to liberalization, I combine each municipality’s agroclimatic suitability for a basket of 44 crops with the post-NAFTA shifts in agricultural imports and exports. Difference-in-differences models show that municipalities whose endowments favored export crops over import-competing crops experienced strong post-NAFTA gains in agricultural employment and a significant decrease in support for the PRI. Moreover, separately estimating the effects of the import and export shocks shows that support for the PRI

increased in municipalities that faced increased import competition following liberalization. This finding suggests that negative trade shocks can strengthen incumbents by deepening voters' dependence on clientelistic networks.

While several causal mechanisms could explain the association between export shock intensity and decreased support for the incumbent, several additional findings are consistent with the paper's argument that the erosion of the regime's clientelistic networks played a key role. First, increased export shock intensity is associated with lower enrollment in *Progres*a, the flagship federal welfare program, which opposition activists and journalists widely alleged was subject to political manipulation and used for electoral mobilization (The Carter Center, 2000; Cornelius, 2002). Second, if clientelism drives the results, the association between gains from liberalization and decreased support for the incumbent should only be present in regions where clientelism was widespread. In rural Mexico, clientelism was concentrated in *ejidos*, communal lands where peasants depended heavily on state funding (Albertus et al., 2016). Consistent with the paper's argument, the association between gains from liberalization and pro-regime losses is significantly stronger in municipalities where a large share of agricultural land was held by *ejidos*, and close to zero in municipalities where this share is low. Third, among opposition parties, gains are concentrated in the left-wing PRD, which offered pro-poor policies but had little clientelistic mobilization capacity. Since clientelistic machines mostly mobilize low-income voters (Stokes et al., 2013; Diaz-Cayeros et al., 2016), the weakening of clientelism should benefit parties whose policy platforms appeal to these voters. By contrast, the shock intensity is not significantly associated with increased support for the right-wing, pro-market opposition. Finally, I empirically show that alternative mechanisms, such as internal migration or increased inequality, cannot explain the paper's findings.

This paper is related to an extensive literature that studies the political consequences of globalization. Increased economic integration benefits the owners of locally abundant factors of production and impoverishes the owners of locally scarce factors (Rogowski, 1989; Stolper and Samuelson, 1941). Since factors of production are not perfectly mobile and tend to be geographically concentrated, globalization produces geographically concentrated winners and losers (Hiscox, 2002; Autor et al., 2013; Broz et al., 2021). Combined with the logic of economic voting, this geographic pattern yields a natural theoretical conjecture: voters in regions harmed by increased import competition should punish incumbents, whereas voters in benefiting regions should reward them. Indeed, ample empirical evidence from developed democracies is consistent with the first part of this conjecture. In Western Europe and the United States, incumbents have lost significant support in import-competing regions (Autor et al., 2020; Margalit, 2011; Choi et al., 2024) as voters have shifted towards protectionist candidates (Colantone and Stanig, 2018b; Autor et al., 2020; Che et al., 2022).

How voters respond to a positive export shock, however, remains comparatively understudied,

and the scarce evidence available also comes from developed democracies, where incumbents have gained support in exporting regions (Jensen et al., 2017). This gap is particularly striking given that positive trade shocks of this kind should be particularly common in developing countries: because labor is the locally abundant factor, trade liberalization should generate employment gains as labor-intensive manufacturing relocates from developed countries (Hiscox, 2002). This paper contributes to filling this gap by studying the consequences of an export shock in a developing country, and shows that voters who benefited from NAFTA shifted away from the regime. This finding underscores that the standard economic voting framework overlooks the impact of trade on clientelistic networks, which are highly relevant for electoral outcomes in the developing world.

More recent work on International Political Economy departs from the economic voting framework and shows that trade can reshape political behavior through downstream channels that economic voting alone fails to capture. Positive export shocks can change the composition of a region's electorate by incentivizing the internal migration of workers with different policy preferences (Scheve and Serlin, 2025). Policies that compensate declining regions can paradoxically increase anti-globalization mobilization by increasing the resources and organizational capacity of protectionist groups (Hai, 2026). In settings where the state lacks the capacity to provide social insurance, a negative trade shock can make voters dependent on non-state insurance providers, such as religious organizations, which empowers them to act as political brokers (Retzl, 2025). This paper builds on this agenda by highlighting an additional channel: I show that a positive export shock can reduce voters' dependence on state-sponsored electoral machines.

This paper also contributes to a large research agenda on clientelism. Clientelistic mobilization is pervasive in the developing world (Hicken, 2011). Extensive evidence documents that clientelistic machines target economically vulnerable voters (Mares, 2015; Stokes, 2005; Stokes et al., 2013). Clientelistic networks are more effective at mobilizing low-income voters because they have a higher marginal utility of benefits, which allows brokers to buy their votes with low-cost handouts (Stokes, 2005). Moreover, low-income voters generally have limited economic opportunities, which increases brokers' ability to punish voter defection by withdrawing benefits (Mares, 2015).

Recent work has shown that policies that permanently increase voters' incomes can reduce their dependence on clientelistic handouts and undermine the effectiveness of electoral machines (Frey, 2022; Larreguy et al., 2018). This paper shows that free trade can play a similar role in exporting regions by improving wages and creating new non-state employment opportunities. In this sense, the paper's argument is similar to Bueno de Mesquita et al. (2003)'s characterization of free trade as a public good that benefits citizens regardless of whether they support incumbents. The paper's findings suggest that free trade can also undermine the effectiveness of private goods in securing support for incumbents.

Finally, I contribute to the research on the consequences of NAFTA. In the USA, NAFTA was associated with job losses and economic decline in manufacturing regions (Hakobyan and McLaren, 2016; Choi et al., 2024). Recent work shows that NAFTA-induced economic losses are associated with decreased support for the (then incumbent) Democratic Party, and increased support for Ross Perot’s protectionist candidacy (Choi et al., 2024; Flaherty, 2023). On the Mexican side, the empirical evidence on the economic and social consequences of NAFTA is mixed. The treaty triggered manufacturing employment gains and raised blue-collar wages. However, since the economic benefits of NAFTA were geographically concentrated, the treaty increased inter-regional inequality. Even in exporting regions, NAFTA caused significant long-term social upheaval: expanded blue-collar employment options caused an increase in high school dropout rates (Atkin, 2016); decreased transportation costs between Mexico and the USA increased the profitability of drug trafficking and intensified drug-related violence (Hidalgo et al., 2026).

The political consequences of NAFTA in Mexico, however, have received comparatively less attention. Through a different mechanism, earlier work argues that globalization undermined PRI control over municipal governments because a larger local tax base hindered the central government’s ability to punish opposition mayors by withdrawing federal funds (Diaz-Cayeros et al., 2003). More recent work shows that by 2006, when much of the PRI’s machine had been dismantled, López Obrador, the protectionist candidate, underperformed in cities that had benefited from NAFTA (Bustos and Morales-Arilla, 2024). This paper is, to the best of my knowledge, the first to highlight NAFTA’s impact on clientelistic mobilization.

The rest of this paper is structured as follows. The next section discusses the paper’s theoretical argument on the effect of positive export shocks on clientelistic mobilization. Section 3 discusses the historical context. Section 4 describes the paper’s data, and Section 5 presents the empirical strategy. Section 6 presents the paper’s core results, and Section 7 presents numerous robustness checks. Section 8 presents suggestive evidence of the erosion of the regime’s clientelistic networks. Section 9 presents a complementary analysis on the effects of NAFTA in rural municipalities that yields consistent results. Finally, Section 10 discusses the paper’s findings and provides final remarks.

2 Theory: Clientelism and Positive Export Shocks

Extensive work on clientelism in numerous settings has shown that electoral machines target poor voters (Stokes et al., 2013; Diaz-Cayeros et al., 2016). There are two reasons why the clientelistic mobilization of low-income voters is particularly efficient².

²Throughout this paper, I assume that electoral machines have some capacity to monitor voter behavior. Extensive evidence documents that clientelistic brokers can employ a repertoire of strategies to monitor voter behavior even in

First, the cost of vote buying is increasing with income, so it is cheaper for clientelistic machines to buy the votes of low-income individuals. A voter will voluntarily participate in a patron-client exchange if the outcome of the agreement, voting for the machine's candidate and receiving a handout or service, yields a higher utility than forsaking the payoff and voting for her preferred candidate. Thus, from the machine's perspective, the cost of buying a citizen's vote is equal to the cost of the handout that yields the voter the same utility as her reservation utility of voting for her preferred candidate. Ample evidence shows that the marginal utility of additional income diminishes as total income increases—i.e., a fixed payoff has a larger effect on subjective well-being for low-income individuals than for well-off individuals. Thus, holding the value of a handout constant, the clientelistic agreement will yield higher utility to low-income voters, who value the goods and services more, than to relatively wealthy voters.

Second, clientelistic brokers, particularly those aligned with the incumbent, can punish non-compliance by revoking goods, services, or jobs from voters who do not support the machine's candidate, and low-income voters are particularly vulnerable to such punishment. Because of the diminishing marginal utility of income, the withdrawal of handouts or benefits is more detrimental to the well-being of poor voters, which increases the cost of punishment they face. Additionally, if poor voters have low human capital, then they may have limited employment opportunities in their locality and be largely dependent on a few employers, which increases their risk of facing employment-based retaliation (Frye et al., 2014). Low-income voters may also lack the resources to resist punishment (for instance, by seeking protection from the judiciary) or adapt (e.g., by relocating to a different community).

In this sense, shocks that improve voters' economic well-being can reduce the effectiveness of clientelistic machines by increasing the cost of vote-buying and decreasing the machine's ability to punish voters. Not all positive economic shocks will have the same effect on clientelism. In order to break clientelistic linkages, a shock must be: (1) pro-poor—i.e., raise the material well-being of low-income, machine-dependent voters; (2) irrevocable—i.e., machine-affiliated brokers cannot withdraw the benefits; and (3) durable—i.e., the increase in voters' incomes must be long-lasting rather than a temporary shock. Indeed, recent work has shown that durable, irrevocable, pro-poor policies—such as reforms granting secure property rights (Larreguy et al., 2018), the implementation of programmatic social programs (Frey, 2019; De La O, 2013), or the distribution of durable assets (Frey, 2022)—have led to decreased clientelistic mobilization. More generally, economic development is associated with a decrease in the prevalence of vote-buying and other forms of clientelistic mobilization (Stokes et al., 2013; Hicken, 2011).

settings with secret ballots (e.g., by leveraging social norms of reciprocity) (Stokes, 2005; Finan and Schechter, 2012).

2.1 When Free Trade Breaks Clientelism

I argue that, in developing countries, trade liberalization can induce a positive economic shock that is pro-poor, irrevocable, and durable, and therefore undermines clientelistic linkages. First, in the developing world, trade-induced economic growth is likely to be pro-poor. Since labor is the relatively abundant factor of production in most developing countries, their comparative advantage lies in labor-intensive activities such as manufacturing (Stolper and Samuelson, 1941). Trade liberalization incentivizes labor-intensive, unskilled manufacturing to relocate from developed countries, which increases local demand for unskilled labor, creating new employment opportunities for the poor and raising blue-collar wages (Wood, 1994).

Second, trade-induced employment and wage gains are irrevocable since machine-affiliated brokers do not control access to them and cannot revoke them. In liberalizing developing countries, employment gains are concentrated in the private sector (McCaig and Pavcnik, 2018), which puts them outside the direct control of political machines. While incumbents can pressure private companies and incentivize them to discriminate against politically disloyal workers (Frye et al., 2014), the market logic of private-sector companies limits the effectiveness of this mechanism. Such discrimination is economically inefficient since employers who engage in discrimination must incur higher labor costs than their non-discriminating competitors (Becker, 1957). While politically motivated discrimination may still be economically viable in settings where companies face little competition (Frye et al., 2014), it is much costlier for export-oriented employers who face global competitors. New employment opportunities further complicate politically-based hiring discrimination since incumbents must collude with a large number of employers for discrimination to be enforceable (Olson, 1965). Finally, increased demand for low-skill workers in a group of industries should have the general equilibrium effect of raising wages for all unskilled workers in the region, which makes these gains effectively impossible to revoke.

Third, the economic gains of trade liberalization are durable and hard to reverse. Economic integration creates interest groups, such as export-oriented companies, with incentives to lobby for continued liberalization (Rogowski, 1989). Free trade also creates linkages between domestic and foreign companies that substantially increase the cost of reversing liberalization (Milner, 1988). Additionally, free trade agreements (FTAs) often include institutionally-enshrined commitments that are hard to reverse (Maggi and Rodríguez-Clare, 1998; Mansfield et al., 2008), and withdrawal from FTAs can trigger costly international retaliation (Bagwell and Staiger, 1999).

By raising low-skill wages (pro-poor), making it impossible for brokers to condition access to these gains (irrevocable), and locking them in against reversal (durable), trade liberalization simultaneously raises the price of vote-buying and undermines the machine's capacity to punish defection. Conversely, free trade will not weaken clientelism unless it meets all three conditions: in countries where capital is relatively abundant, liberalization will not necessarily result in better em-

ployment opportunities or higher wages for the poor; export booms in state-controlled sectors, such as oil, allow incumbents to gatekeep who accesses economic gains; and transitory commodity-price booms are not durable and may thus fail to break clientelistic linkages if voters are uncertain about their future economic prospects. By the same logic, negative trade shocks can deepen clientelistic dependence (Retzl, 2025). In Section 3 I argue that the post-NAFTA exports boom in Mexican manufacturing possessed all three features. The next subsection presents empirically-testable predictions about which parties should gain and lose from a clientelism-breaking shock.

2.2 Hypotheses: Who Wins and Who Loses from the Breakdown of Clientelism

A positive economic shock that undermines clientelistic mobilization should be detrimental to parties that rely on it and beneficial to parties that do not. However, not all clientelistic machines are equally vulnerable. Machines that control credible-commitment instruments—most importantly, patronage jobs whose continued payments depend on the incumbent remaining in office—can tie voters’ future material well-being to the party’s electoral success in a way that one-shot handouts cannot (Robinson and Verdier, 2013). Additionally, in the developing world, public sector workers generally earn significantly higher wages than their private-sector counterparts (Finan et al., 2017). Since public sector jobs are particularly valuable, patronage employment entails a high defection cost that makes it resilient to a positive economic shock. Thus, parties with access to state resources and well-endowed electoral machines—particularly those that control patronage jobs and other credible-commitment instruments—should be more resilient to positive income shocks than parties that rely primarily on transactional handouts.

Hypothesis 1: *A positive, pro-poor economic shock should be associated with decreased electoral support for clientelistic parties.*

Hypothesis 2: *Among clientelistic parties, these losses should be concentrated in parties that mobilize voters through transactional handouts, and weakest among parties that control credible-commitment instruments, such as patronage employment, that tie voters’ future income to the incumbent’s survival in office.*

The breakdown of clientelistic mobilization, in turn, should benefit programmatic parties. In settings where most voters are tied to electoral machines, policy-based appeals are electorally inefficient since machine-tied voters are bound to support their patrons regardless of the voters’ true policy preferences. A shock that breaks those linkages gives voters the capacity to vote according to their policy preferences, which expands the constituency over which programmatic appeals can compete. The shift towards programmatic competition should benefit parties with a credible

reputation of pursuing a stable policy agenda, particularly if these parties had little clientelistic mobilization capacity.

Hypothesis 3: *A positive, clientelism-eroding economic shock should be associated with electoral gains for programmatic parties, particularly if they have little clientelistic mobilization capacity.*

Among programmatic parties, the weakening of clientelistic mobilization should be particularly beneficial to parties that compete programmatically for the support of low-income voters but have little clientelistic mobilization capacity. As previously noted, clientelistic machines mostly mobilize low-income voters, so the bulk of voters released from clientelistic dependence are themselves low-income. These newly released voters should favor parties with a credible commitment towards enacting pro-poor, redistributive policies over parties whose programmatic appeals target middle-class or high-income voters, whose choices are generally not shaped by clientelism³. Thus, the electoral gains from clientelistic erosion should be concentrated in pro-poor programmatic parties.

Hypothesis 4: *Among programmatic parties, electoral gains should be concentrated in parties credibly committed to enacting pro-poor policies.*

These four hypotheses motivate the paper's empirical analysis. The next section introduces the Mexican case and explains why the PRI's reliance on a broad state-sponsored clientelistic machine, combined with the export boom triggered by NAFTA, makes it an especially well-suited setting in which to test these predictions.

3 Historical Context

The Institutional Revolutionary Party (PRI henceforth) ruled Mexico from 1929 to 2000. The party emerged in the aftermath of the Mexican Revolution as a broad coalition of Revolutionary factions. Through its multi-decade rule, the PRI built an electoral machine that allowed it to hold near-total control over Mexican politics. The party's control over state resources allowed it to deploy multiple strategies to establish clientelistic linkages with diverse groups of voters. In urban areas, the party rewarded loyalists with patronage jobs in the bureaucracy and state-owned enterprises (Magaloni, 2006; Greene, 2007). Among the urban poor, local party brokers controlled access to social programs and public services and distributed material handouts around election time (Magaloni, 2006; Diaz-Cayeros et al., 2016). Beyond these structures, the PRI also funded and controlled minor left-wing *satellite* parties that mobilized unaffiliated urban poor voters, such as residents of squatter settlements, through material handouts.

³This is similar to Fujiwara (2015)'s finding that the *de facto* enfranchisement of illiterate voters in Brazil led to increased support for Left-wing parties and more redistributive policy outcomes.

In rural regions, the PRI leveraged land reform to build clientelistic networks. The PRI implemented a massive land reform program that redistributed over half of the country's territory through the *ejido* system, which granted land to agricultural communities under precarious use rights. *Ejido* lands could not be sold, rented, or used as collateral to acquire loans, which made *ejido* farmers highly dependent on the state for access to credit and technical assistance (Albertus et al., 2016; Sanderson, 1984; de Janvry et al., 2014). Moreover, within each *ejido*, the distribution of social programs was managed by a commissariat closely aligned to the PRI, who in practice served as the community's local broker (Larreguy, 2013). *Ejido* farmers' direct dependence on state resources, and the brokers' ability to condition access to them on political loyalty, made the *ejido* the cornerstone of the regime's clientelistic machine in rural Mexico (Albertus et al., 2016; Larreguy, 2013; Sanderson, 1984; Silva Herzog, 1959).

The PRI was characterized by a high degree of ideological heterogeneity for most of its history. In general, the party membership was split between two major ideological factions: a technocratic, economically liberal group—drawn from an urban, university-educated professional elite—and a nationalist, protectionist faction associated with state-owned enterprises, peasant groups and import substitution industrialization (Centeno, 1994; Babb, 2001). During the first decades of PRI-rule, both factions shared power and the presidency alternated between them. However, following years of chronic overspending, a severe fiscal crisis in 1982 discredited the party's statist faction and shifted control to the technocratic wing. It was this faction that, under President Carlos Salinas, implemented a program of economic liberalization. One of the centerpieces of Salinas' program of economic reform was the negotiation of a free trade agreement with the United States and Canada.

3.1 The North American Free Trade Agreement

The resulting agreement, which was signed in December 1992 and entered into force in January 1994, committed Mexico, the United States, and Canada to the elimination of tariffs and non-tariff barriers across manufacturing, agriculture, and services. While the treaty phased out some tariffs over a transition period, trade was rapidly liberalized, and the most significant changes took effect on the day NAFTA entered into force. Products that accounted for 54 percent of the pre-NAFTA value of Mexican exports to the US became duty-free in January 1994, and another 14 percent already entered the US duty-free before the agreement (Abbott, 1995). Tariffs on the remaining products received their first cut on the same day and continued to fall every year thereafter⁴.

Moreover, NAFTA facilitated Mexican exports through three channels beyond tariff cuts. First,

⁴Tariffs on most of the remaining products were eliminated in equal annual cuts over five or ten years. Products facing the longest, fifteen-year phase-out accounted for less than 1 percent of the pre-NAFTA value of Mexican exports to the US (Abbott, 1995), and enforcement of these tariffs was weak. Section 9 discusses the impact of NAFTA in the agricultural sector.

the treaty eliminated most import licenses and quantitative restrictions upon its entry into force and created dispute resolution mechanisms that allowed exporters to contest antidumping duties and other non-tariff barriers (Abbott, 1995; Hufbauer and Schott, 1993). Second, NAFTA removed many of Mexico's restrictions on foreign investment, which facilitated the entry of the foreign-owned, export-oriented firms that drove the post-NAFTA exports boom (Hufbauer and Schott, 1993; Lustig, 1998). Third, the treaty substantially reduced exporters' uncertainty about their future access to the US market. Before NAFTA, much of Mexico's preferential access to the US market depended on unilateral programs that the US government could modify or withdraw at its discretion. NAFTA made these tariff cuts permanent and established a binding timeline for the elimination of all remaining tariffs. Indeed, recent work has shown that, after NAFTA, Mexican exports to the US also increased, relative to other countries' exports of the same products, in products that already entered the US market duty-free (Besedes et al., 2020), which suggests that the treaty facilitated exports through channels other than tariff cuts.

NAFTA's entry into force triggered a large expansion of Mexican exports to the US (Romalis, 2007). Because of Mexico's comparative advantage in labor relative to the US, the growth in Mexican exports was concentrated in (unskilled) manufacturing. Thus, in Mexican exporting regions, NAFTA caused significant gains in blue-collar wages and employment (Atkin, 2016). These gains were also irrevocable: since they originated in private, largely foreign-owned export firms, they were outside the control of the regime's brokers. Additionally, given the high costs of withdrawing from a free trade agreement, as discussed in Section 2, the liberalization that produced these gains was unlikely to be reversed, so these gains constituted a durable income shock to working-class voters in exporting regions. In Section 6, I show that post-NAFTA economic gains undermined the regime's electoral machine in Mexican regions that were highly exposed to the positive export shock.

3.1.1 Why NAFTA?

Why would a clientelistic incumbent accept free trade if liberalization will undermine its clientelistic networks? Scholars of Mexican politics offer two explanations for why Salinas' government had an interest in negotiating a free trade agreement with the United States despite its reliance on machine-based mobilization. First, when Salinas took office in 1988, Mexico still faced the consequences of its 1982 fiscal crisis: the government was highly indebted (Lustig, 1998), inflation was chronically high, and GDP per capita was still below its pre-crisis level. The economic downturn had severely undermined the PRI's popularity, which for the first time in history experienced significant losses in the 1985 and (particularly) the 1988 elections. In this setting, it was paramount for the regime to rekindle economic growth to prevent further electoral losses. The Salinas administration hoped that economic integration with the US would improve the country's economic

situation by attracting foreign investment, guaranteeing access to the US market, and stimulating export-led growth.

Second, NAFTA also offered the technocratic reform wing a way to lock in economic liberalization and make it hard for any future government to reverse. This served the reformers on two fronts. Abroad, given the country's precarious fiscal situation, the government had an interest in sending a credible signal to foreign creditors and investors that there would not be a reversal to statist policies (Maxfield, 1997; Lustig, 1998). In this sense, NAFTA served as a credible commitment device because the agreement included several binding commitments that would be costly to abandon in case a future Mexican administration attempted to reinstate statist policies (Maggi and Rodríguez-Clare, 1998; Hufbauer and Schott, 1993). At home, the same commitments helped the technocrats sideline the party's statist faction by making its protectionist policy agenda impossible to implement.

Beyond these two explanations, insofar as NAFTA-induced economic gains could erode the regime's clientelistic mobilization capacity, the brunt of the political cost would be borne by Salinas' internal rivals. Most of the regime's electoral brokers—e.g., peasant leaders and the PRI's allied satellite parties—had ties to the party's statist faction (Rodríguez Araujo, 1979; Molinar Horcasitas, 1991; Bruhn, 1997). While the decline of the regime's electoral machine undermined the party's total mobilization capacity, it also shifted the factional balance of power by weakening the statist faction. Thus, for the incumbent technocratic wing, the electoral consequences of NAFTA were less negative than for the regime as a whole.

3.2 Party Landscape

This section characterizes the main parties that contested elections in this period. A party's mobilization strategy—e.g., whether it mostly relies on clientelistic mobilization or programmatic appeals—is a crucial determinant of how it will be affected by a clientelism-eroding economic shock. As the previous section discussed, the incumbent **PRI** was ideologically heterogeneous and relied heavily on clientelistic mobilization. The party could leverage its control over state resources to employ a diverse set of clientelistic strategies such as patronage, the withdrawal of peasants' property rights, and vote-buying. Scholars of Mexican politics agree that the PRI did not have a consistent policy platform. Instead, the government's policy priorities shifted according to which faction held the presidency (Centeno, 1994). By the 1990s, when the technocratic wing dominated the party, the PRI's position could be broadly described as centrist in Mexico's political spectrum. While the PRI had embraced liberal economic reforms and trade liberalization, its support for continued state ownership of key assets like oil placed it to the left of the conservative opposition.

The PRI supported three minor *satellite parties*: The PPS, PARM, and PFCRN⁵. Although these parties were nominally leftist, in practice their policy positions amounted to little other than supporting the government's policies (Rodríguez Araujo, 1979; Molinar Horcasitas, 1991; Bruhn, 1997). Given their thin programmatic commitments, the *satellite parties* relied heavily on broker-based electoral mobilization of poor voters in marginalized communities such as squatter settlements (Alvarado and Minello, 1992). They could sustain this clientelistic mobilization because, unlike opposition parties, they received extralegal funding from the Mexican government (Bruhn, 1997). However, unlike the PRI, the *satellite parties* did not control the bureaucracy and had a weak presence in local governments, which forced them to rely on more basic strategies for clientelistic mobilization. While the *satellite parties*' everyday clientelistic practices have received little scholarly attention, declassified surveillance files of the Federal Security Directorate (DFS)—the regime's secret police—document the *satellite parties*' reliance on handout-based clientelistic mobilization in low-income neighborhoods⁶. Appendix A describes the DFS files and presents this evidence in detail.

In turn, the PRI's opposition was split between left-wing and right-wing parties. Despite their ideological differences, both opposition parties shared two features. On the one hand, since they lacked access to state resources, the parties had little clientelistic mobilization capacity (Greene, 2007; Magaloni, 2006). On the other hand, opposition parties were significantly more ideological than pro-government parties. Since these parties competed at a significant disadvantage, their membership attracted highly ideological individuals who self-selected into these parties despite their electoral weakness (Greene, 2007).

The right-wing opposition was organized around the National Action Party (**PAN**), a right-wing Catholic party. The PAN's main constituency was the urban middle-class, which was prosperous enough to be autonomous from the regime's electoral machine (Loaeza, 1999; Magaloni, 2006). The PAN had consistently favored economic liberalization and was perceived by Mexican voters as the most pro-market party (Loaeza, 1999; Greene, 2007). Regarding trade, the PAN was generally supportive of NAFTA and trade liberalization (Loaeza, 1999).

On the left, the main opposition party was the Party of the Democratic Revolution (**PRD**). The PRD was the institutional successor of a lineage of socialist parties stretching back to the Mexican Communist Party⁷. The party took its modern form in 1989, when this socialist current

⁵Popular Socialist Party, Authentic Party of the Mexican Revolution, and Cardenist Front for National Reconstruction, respectively.

⁶This characterization is also consistent with informal conversations with former activists of the independent left (the PMS and PSUM) and the early PRD—parties that competed directly against the *satellite parties* for the same low-income electorate—who described the same practices.

⁷The independent left was represented by the Mexican Communist Party (PCM, 1977 to 1981), the Unified Socialist Party of Mexico (PSUM, 1981–1987), the Mexican Socialist Party (PMS, 1987–1989), and the Party of the Democratic Revolution (PRD, from 1989). For most of the period I study, this camp is represented by the PRD.

merged with a group of dissident PRI politicians from the party’s statist wing. Crucially, however, these defectors did not bring the PRI’s clientelistic machine with them since the brokers and state resources that sustained clientelistic mobilization remained with the government (Bruhn, 1997). Thus, the PRD competed as a redistributive programmatic party and drew support from the urban and rural poor. Relative to the other major parties, the PRD favored more protectionism (Magaloni, 2006). However, given the potential costs of exiting the agreement, the party did not advocate for a radical reversal of trade liberalization (Bruhn, 1997).

Table 1 classifies the parties based on their policy positions and their dependence on clientelistic or programmatic appeals for voter mobilization. In the next section, I turn to the data and research design used to estimate how NAFTA exposure reshaped electoral support.

Table 1: Party Classification

		Ideology		
		Left	Center	Right
Pro-Regime	Clientelistic	Satellite Parties		
	<i>handout-based</i>			
	Clientelistic		PRI	
	<i>relational</i>			
Opposition	Programmatic	PRD		PAN
				

Notes: The table classifies parties by their alignment with the regime, their dominant mode of voter mobilization, and their ideological position.

4 Data

My goal is to build a panel of Mexican regions at the most fine-grained level at which I can accurately measure both regional exposure to the post-NAFTA export boom and electoral outcomes. The paper’s core analysis relies on three sources:

- **Industry-level Employment Data:** To measure regional exposure to NAFTA-induced eco-

conomic gains, I digitized the **1989 Mexican Industrial Census**, which includes municipal-level employment in each of the manufacturing industries of the *Mexican Classification of Activities and Products* (CMAP). To measure the industry-level export shock, I link each HTS-6 export product to a Mexican industrial classification by using Pierce and Schott (2009) and INEGI’s concordance tables.

- **Electoral Data:** I use congressional-district level results for all lower-house (Chamber of Deputies) legislative elections held between 1979 (the first election run under this system) and 2000 (when the PRI lost the presidency and Mexico transitioned into a fully competitive democracy)⁸. I use district-level data because it is the most fine-grained level at which electoral results were consistently published through this period. Electoral authorities only began publishing municipality-level results for legislative elections in 1991 (the last pre-NAFTA election). Thus, a municipality-level analysis does not allow me to evaluate pre-NAFTA political trends, which is crucial for credible identification. As a robustness check, Appendix B shows that a municipality-level analysis yields consistent findings.

Similar to the US’s House of Representatives, Mexico is divided into 300 congressional districts with roughly equal population⁹. I focus on Chamber of Deputies elections because, unlike mayoral or governor elections—which are often contested on local issues and revolve heavily around candidates—legislative elections in Mexico are highly nationalized and party-centric, so legislative elections more accurately measure voters’ support for each party.

- **Demographic and Economic Data:** I use microdata from the 1990 and 2000 National Population Censuses to construct a set of demographic and socioeconomic controls—such as population, urbanization, literacy, indigenous population share, poverty rates, migration, inequality—and to measure local enrollment in federal welfare programs for the mechanism analysis in Section 8. I describe each control where I introduce the corresponding specifications in Section 5.

As noted above, electoral and manufacturing data exist at different geographic levels (300 congressional districts vs. 2,403 municipalities). Municipalities are not nested in congressional districts: while most districts are unions of whole municipalities, other districts split municipalities. Thus, I aggregate districts and municipalities into the smallest geographic units that are unions of

⁸Electoral data for post-1991 elections comes from Mexico’s National Electoral Institute. Results for previous elections come from CEDE (2024).

⁹The Mexican House of Representatives, however, also has 200 seats allocated through proportional representation. Since opposition parties rarely defeated the PRI at the district level, most opposition legislators were elected through the PR seats, so any increase in an opposition party’s vote share was politically relevant.

complete districts and complete municipalities. This procedure yields 201 clusters at which both electoral and manufacturing data can be measured accurately.

4.1 Measuring Exposure to the Export Shock

To measure each cluster's exposure to the post-NAFTA export boom, I construct an Autor et al. (2013)-style shift-share index that combines national industry-level export growth with each cluster's pre-NAFTA employment composition.

$$\text{NAFTA Index}_c = \sum_j \frac{L_{c,j}}{\text{Workers}_c} \times \frac{\Delta \text{Exports}_j}{L_j^{\text{nat}}}$$

Where $L_{c,j}/\text{Workers}_c$ denotes the pre-NAFTA (1989) share of cluster c 's workers employed in manufacturing industry j ; L_j^{nat} is the pre-NAFTA national employment in manufacturing industry j ; and $\Delta \text{Exports}_j$ corresponds to the total change (USD) in Mexican exports to the USA in industry j between 1991 and 2000.¹⁰ The index approximates the per-worker change in export value that cluster c would experience if each of its industries grew at the national rate. Intuitively, the index takes on high values if, pre-NAFTA, cluster c was highly specialized in manufacturing industries where Mexican exports to the USA grew significantly after NAFTA. Figure 1 maps the geographic distribution of the NAFTA index variable.

¹⁰Export data comes from UN Comtrade.

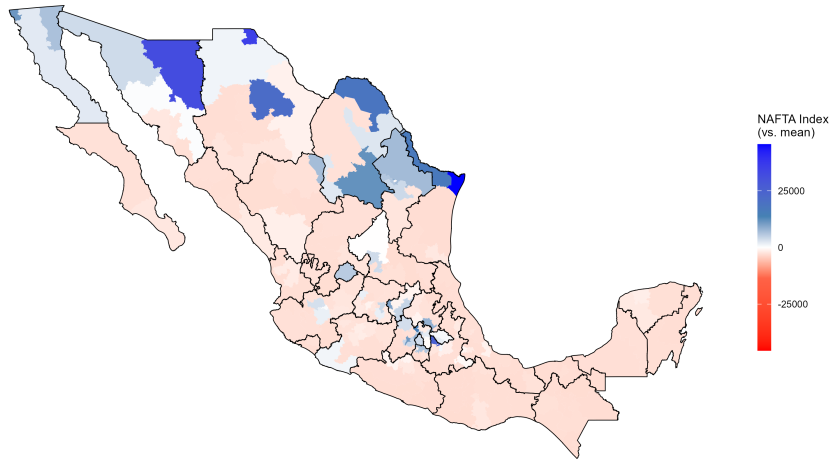


Figure 1: NAFTA Index: Geographic Distribution. *Notes:* Each shaded unit is one of the 201 clusters used in the core analysis. The shading shows the cluster's NAFTA Index relative to the national mean. Blue (red) shades denote high (low) exposure.

By design, the NAFTA Index has two features that must be accounted for. First, because each cluster's industry shares sum up to its total manufacturing employment share, the index systematically takes larger values in clusters that are highly specialized in manufacturing. If industrial clusters follow different political trends *vis-a-vis* clusters specialized in other sectors, then any findings would be confounded. To address this issue, all specifications dynamically control for the total cluster-level share of manufacturing employment—i.e., all specifications allow clusters to follow different trends based on their total pre-NAFTA manufacturing employment¹¹. In other words, the effective variation does not come from some clusters being more specialized in manufacturing than others, but from each cluster's industrial *composition*, conditional on its total manufacturing employment share.

Second, as Figure 1 illustrates, exposure is concentrated in clusters near the Mexico-US border. Even before NAFTA, some Mexican industries sent significant exports to the US, and exporting firms sorted in northern regions to reduce their transportation costs (Hanson, 1997). The index is thus strongly correlated with each cluster's distance to the Mexico-US border, which raises the concern that it simply proxies for a cluster's distance to the US. Indeed, absent NAFTA, there are multiple reasons why regions close to the US might have diverged politically from the rest of the

¹¹This corresponds to Borusyak et al. (2022)'s *incomplete shares control*

country—e.g., high migration, drug-trade dynamics, a more conservative political culture. Thus, all empirical specifications allow electoral trends to vary with each cluster’s distance to the US border, measured as the log of the shortest distance, in kilometers, from the cluster’s centroid to the nearest US port of entry along the pre-NAFTA road network.¹²

Table 2 shows descriptive statistics for the variables used in the paper’s core analysis. As the table shows, the NAFTA Index is heavily right-skewed, which raises concerns that any findings are driven by a few outlier clusters. However, as discussed above, the effective variation used in the empirics is conditional on total pre-NAFTA manufacturing employment and distance to the US-Mexico border. Thus, as Appendix C shows, the effective variation is substantially less skewed. Moreover, Appendix B shows that the paper’s findings are robust to dropping the most influential clusters.

Table 2: Summary Statistics

	Mean	SD	Min	Max	N Clusters	N Elections
<i>Panel A: Electoral Outcomes (% vote share)</i>						
Pro-Regime Total	67.41	19.96	20.98	99.68	201	8
PRI	61.05	18.56	12.13	99.10	201	8
Satellite Parties	6.36	9.79	0.16	80.95	201	8
Total Opposition	26.84	18.52	0.23	74.06	201	8
PAN (Right)	17.03	13.99	0.03	68.66	201	8
PRD (Left)	9.82	11.49	0.05	56.32	201	8
<i>Panel B: NAFTA Exposure</i>						
NAFTA Exposure Index (ADH)	3,187.1	6,636.8	22.3	48,606.7	201	8
<i>Panel C: Pre-NAFTA Controls</i>						
Manufacturing Employment Share	0.070	0.074	0.004	0.379	201	8
Population (000s)	394.0	612.2	112.9	8,235.7	201	8
Distance to Border (km)	937.1	500.3	13.4	2,635.3	201	8
Marginalization Index	−0.447	0.856	−2.308	1.660	201	8
Literacy	0.843	0.096	0.497	0.977	201	8
Post-Primary Share	0.213	0.094	0.044	0.447	201	8
Urban Share	0.604	0.245	0.066	1.000	201	8
Indigenous Share	0.076	0.136	0.000	0.608	201	8
Primary Sector Share	0.339	0.204	0.003	0.842	201	8
Secondary Sector Share	0.246	0.099	0.037	0.503	201	8
Tertiary Sector Share	0.381	0.138	0.088	0.701	201	8

Notes: Summary statistics for the 201 clusters observed in the eight legislative elections held between 1979 and 2000. Results for the 1994 election are missing for two clusters (the 4th district of Puebla and the 22nd district of Veracruz).

The next section presents the empirical strategy used throughout the paper.

¹²I compute shortest-path road distances over Mexico’s 1985 road network from each cluster’s centroid to the nearest US-Mexico land border crossing.

5 Empirical Strategy

I exploit each cluster’s variation in exposure to the post-NAFTA export shock to identify the effect of NAFTA on economic and political outcomes. The baseline empirical specification is a difference-in-differences model that compares trends in clusters specialized in industries that experienced large post-NAFTA growth with clusters specialized in industries that did not. More formally, I estimate:

$$Y_{ct} = \alpha_c + \gamma_t + \beta \cdot (\text{NAFTA Index}_c \times \text{After}_t) + \delta'(\mathbf{X}_c \times \text{After}_t) + \varepsilon_{ct}$$

Where Y_{ct} is cluster c ’s outcome at time t ; After_t is an indicator variable that equals one for all periods after NAFTA entered force in January of 1994; α_c and γ_t are cluster and period fixed effects; and $\mathbf{X}_c$ is a vector of pre-NAFTA controls: the cluster’s share of workers in manufacturing, its (log) distance to the US-Mexico border, and a set of economic and demographic covariates from the 1990 census¹³. To facilitate the interpretation of the paper’s results, I standardize the NAFTA index, so all coefficients should be interpreted as the expected change in the dependent variable associated with a one standard deviation increase in the NAFTA index.

The identification assumption is that, absent NAFTA, high-exposure clusters would have followed similar trajectories to low-exposure clusters. To assess its plausibility, whenever data availability allows it, I estimate event-study specifications that replace After_t with a full set of period indicators interacted with the NAFTA index, which allows me to test for differential pre-NAFTA trends across exposure levels and to trace the effect’s dynamics after 1994.

$$Y_{ct} = \alpha_c + \gamma_t + \sum_{k \neq 1991} \beta_k \cdot (\text{NAFTA Index}_c \times \mathbf{1}\{t = k\}) + \sum_{k \neq 1991} \delta'_k(\mathbf{X}_c \times \mathbf{1}\{t = k\}) + \varepsilon_{ct}$$

Where $\mathbf{1}\{t = k\}$ is an indicator variable that equals one in period k and zero otherwise; the omitted reference period corresponds to 1991 (the last pre-NAFTA election). All remaining terms are defined as in the baseline difference-in-differences specification above. The coefficients of interest β_k trace the association between NAFTA and the outcome variable in each period relative to 1991. If high-exposure and low-exposure clusters followed similar trajectories before NAFTA entered force, then pre-1994 β_k coefficients should be close to zero.

¹³The census covariates are log population, the marginalization index, the literacy rate, the share of the population with post-primary schooling, the urban share, the indigenous share, and the shares of employment in the primary, secondary, and tertiary sectors. In the municipality-level analyses of Appendix B, the indigenous share and the sectoral employment shares are replaced by population density, and schooling is measured as the share of the population with completed primary schooling.

6 Results

6.1 Economic Outcomes

I first show that the NAFTA index is strongly correlated with the cluster-level change in manufacturing employment from 1989 to 1999. Table 3 displays the estimates of a two-period (1989, 1999) difference-in-differences model where the dependent variable is each cluster's total manufacturing employment in the corresponding year. An important concern is that, after dynamically controlling for each cluster's share of manufacturing employment and distance to the Mexico-US border, the variable may not be strongly correlated with post-NAFTA economic gains (i.e., there could be little residual variation after controlling for these variables). Column 1 displays the coefficients of a model that controls for the interactions of these variables and the post-NAFTA indicator. The NAFTA index is strongly associated with the post-NAFTA increase in manufacturing employment: a one standard deviation increase in exposure to the export shock is associated with approximately a 15 percent increase in manufacturing employment. Another concern is that high-growth industries were concentrated in regions that differed from the rest of the country on other dimensions such as human capital, urbanization, or development. Column 2 adds the full set of pre-NAFTA demographic and economic controls estimated from the 1990 census microdata: total population, poverty, education, urbanization, indigenous population¹⁴, and sectoral employment composition, each interacted with the post-NAFTA dummy. As the coefficient shows, the association between the NAFTA index and manufacturing employment gains remains highly significant: approximately a 14 percent increase in manufacturing employment ($p < 0.05$).

6.2 Political Outcomes

I then evaluate the political consequences of NAFTA. Table 4 displays the estimates of a difference-in-differences model that examines the association between exposure to the NAFTA export shock and support for pro-government parties (the PRI and its satellite parties)¹⁵, which were heavily

¹⁴The PRI had strong ties to indigenous traditional authorities, which made its support in highly indigenous regions more resilient to the export shock (Benton, 2012). Since the indigenous population is concentrated in southern, rural, low-exposure clusters, this could confound the results.

¹⁵I count a vote for any of the satellite parties as a vote for the regime. The major complication is the 1988 election, when the satellite parties and the left-wing opposition both supported PRI dissident Cuauhtémoc Cárdenas. However, contemporaneous accounts show that opposition leaders were highly skeptical of the satellite parties' true loyalty. Indeed, mistrust towards the satellite parties was one of the reasons why the left-wing opposition and the satellite parties did not form a coalition for the legislative election and ran on different slates (Bruhn, 1997). Following the election, the skeptics' fears were confirmed when the satellite parties switched back to supporting the PRI (Molinar Horcasitas, 1991). Given the strong association between the satellite parties and the regime, it is unclear whether a vote for them in the 1988 election represented a vote against the regime. For consistency, I always include the satellite parties in the pro-regime vote share.

Table 3: First Stage: NAFTA Index and Manufacturing Employment

Dependent Variable:	Log Manufacturing Employment	
	(1)	(2)
NAFTA Index (std.) $\times$ Post	0.1532*** (0.0502)	0.1353** (0.0523)
Mfg. Empl. Share $\times$ Post	-4.7761*** (0.6072)	-5.5718*** (0.7265)
Log Dist. to Border $\times$ Post	-0.1858*** (0.0384)	-0.1894*** (0.0449)
Demographic & Economic Controls	$\times$	$\checkmark$
Cluster FE	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$
Year FE	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$
Clusters	201	201
Periods	2	2
Observations	402	402

Dependent variable: $\log(1 + \text{manufacturing employment})$, measured in the 1989 and 1999 Industrial Censuses. Column (2) adds the controls described in Section 5. Standard errors clustered at the cluster level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

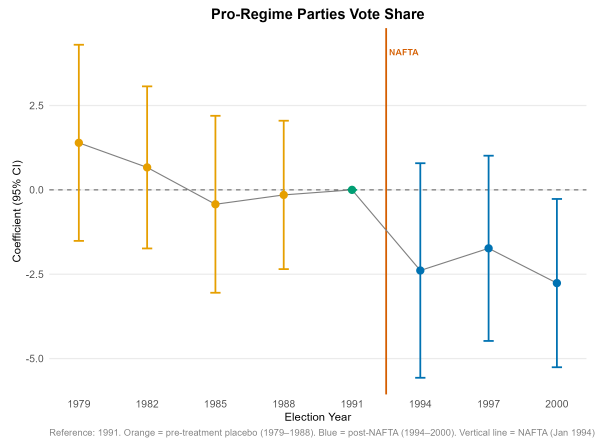
reliant on clientelistic mobilization. As Column 1 shows, support for pro-regime parties fell significantly in high-exposure regions: a one standard deviation increase in exposure to the export shock is associated with a 2.6 percentage point decrease in the pro-regime vote share. In Column 2 I add the set of census economic and demographic controls, and the estimated decline remains statistically significant and, if anything, slightly larger in magnitude: a one standard deviation increase in exposure is associated with a 2.8 percentage point decrease in the pro-regime vote share. This decline is consistent with Hypothesis 1: a positive, clientelism-eroding export shock reduced support for the parties that relied most heavily on clientelistic mobilization.

Figure 2 plots the dynamic effects of the corresponding event-study specification. As the figure shows, before NAFTA, high- and low-exposure clusters did not follow different trajectories: the pre-1994 coefficients are small and statistically indistinguishable from zero, and I cannot reject the hypothesis that all pre-NAFTA placebo estimates jointly equal zero (joint p -value = 0.78 and 0.60 under the basic and full controls, respectively).

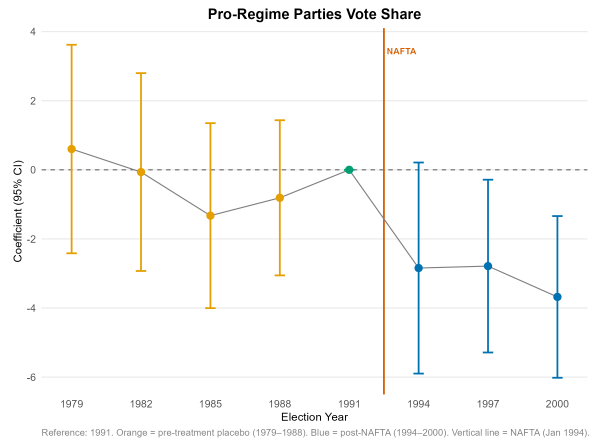
Table 4: Effect of NAFTA Exposure on Pro-Regime Vote Share

Dependent Variable:	Pro-Regime Total	
	(1)	(2)
NAFTA Exp. (std.) $\times$ Post	-2.592** (1.207)	-2.787*** (1.063)
Demographic & Economic Controls	$\times$	$\checkmark$
Cluster FE	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$
Year FE	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$
Clusters	201	201
Elections	8	8
Observations	1,606	1,606
Mean of dep. var.	67.41	67.41

Dependent variable: vote share in percentage points. Column (2) adds the controls described in Section 5. Standard errors clustered at the cluster level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.



(a) Basic Controls



(b) Full Controls

Figure 2: Event Study: Pro-Regime Vote Share. Reference: 1991. Vertical line = NAFTA (Jan 1994). 95% CI.

I then decompose the pro-regime vote into the PRI itself and its satellite parties (PPS, PARM, PFCRN). Table 5 displays the estimates of the corresponding difference-in-differences models, which reveal a sharp asymmetry. The decline in support for pro-regime parties is concentrated almost entirely in the satellite parties, while the PRI vote share remains stable throughout the period: a one standard deviation increase in exposure to the post-NAFTA export shock is associated with a 2.5 percentage point decrease in support for the satellite parties. As Column 4 shows, these findings are robust to the addition of demographic and economic controls. In turn, Figure 3 displays the corresponding event-study plots, which show that high- and low-exposure clusters followed similar trajectories before NAFTA.

While all pro-regime parties relied heavily on clientelistic mobilization, their resources constrained the strategies they could employ. On the one hand, the PRI's control of the federal and

local governments allowed it to offer benefits, like patronage jobs, that were relatively valuable and gave voters a direct stake in the party's electoral success. As previously discussed, such strategies should be more resilient to a positive income shock. Beyond patronage employment, the PRI's resources allowed it to build a vast network of brokers with deep, durable ties to their communities (Magaloni, 2006). Many voters with durable ties to clientelistic machines prefer not to sever their ties to the machine even when their incomes rise, because their relationship serves as a form of insurance against future negative shocks (Nichter, 2018). For these reasons, the PRI's machine should have been resilient to a positive income shock¹⁶.

On the other hand, the satellite parties lacked these resources and had to rely on more basic strategies such as the provision of one-shot material handouts. Moreover, even though the parties were purportedly left-wing, their lack of programmatic commitment meant that, absent clientelism, voters had little reason to support them. Finally, it is worth mentioning that the satellite parties' voter base left them highly exposed to the NAFTA shock. As Figure 4 shows, the satellite parties were relatively stronger in urban regions, which benefited the most from the increase in manufacturing employment. Together, these features made the satellite parties vulnerable to a clientelism-eroding positive economic shock¹⁷.

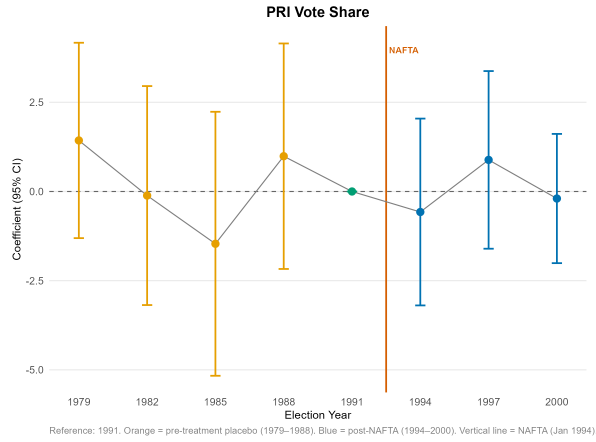
Table 5: Effect of NAFTA Exposure on PRI and Satellite Party Vote Share

Dependent Variable:	PRI		Satellite Parties	
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
NAFTA Exp. (std.) $\times$ Post	-0.1301 (1.073)	-0.1788 (1.005)	-2.462** (1.124)	-2.608** (1.114)
Demographic & Economic Controls	$\times$	$\checkmark$	$\times$	$\checkmark$
Cluster FE	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$
Year FE	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$
Clusters	201	201	201	201
Elections	8	8	8	8
Observations	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606
Mean of dep. var.	61.05	61.05	6.36	6.36

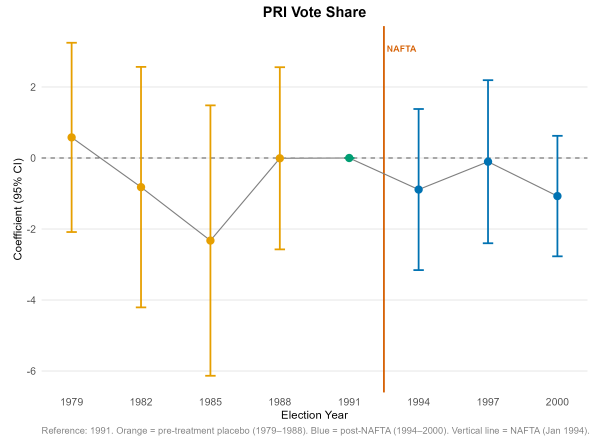
Dependent variable: vote share in percentage points. Columns (2) and (4) add the controls described in Section 5. Standard errors clustered at the cluster level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

¹⁶An alternative interpretation is that, in highly exposed regions that saw significant economic gains, the PRI did lose clientelistic support but benefited from retrospective economic voting such that both effects canceled out. Unfortunately, I cannot evaluate this possibility because of the lack of granular electoral data for the period.

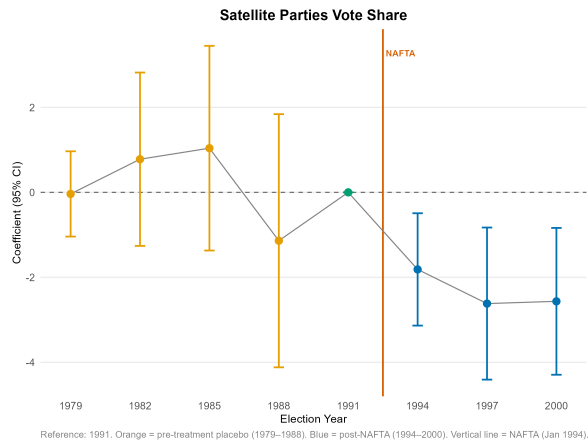
¹⁷The satellite parties were associated with the PRI's statist faction (Bruhn, 1997). In this sense, the finding that electoral losses were concentrated in them, as opposed to the PRI itself, is consistent with the idea that one of Salinas' incentives for negotiating NAFTA was that the political costs of post-NAFTA clientelistic erosion would fall most strongly on his coalitional rivals.



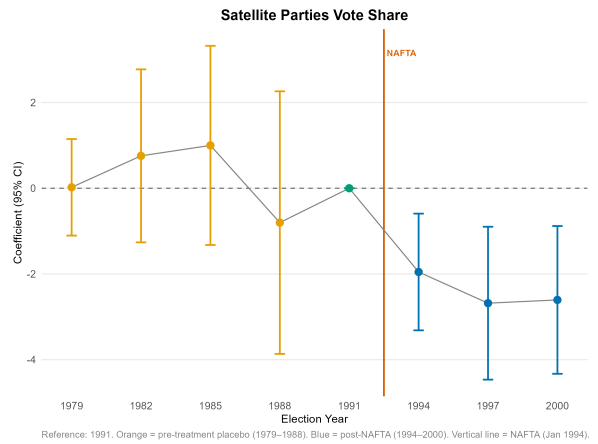
(a) PRI — Basic Controls



(b) PRI — Full Controls



(c) Satellite Parties — Basic Controls



(d) Satellite Parties — Full Controls

Figure 3: Event Study: PRI and Satellite-Party Vote Shares. Reference: 1991. Vertical line = NAFTA (Jan 1994). 95% CI.

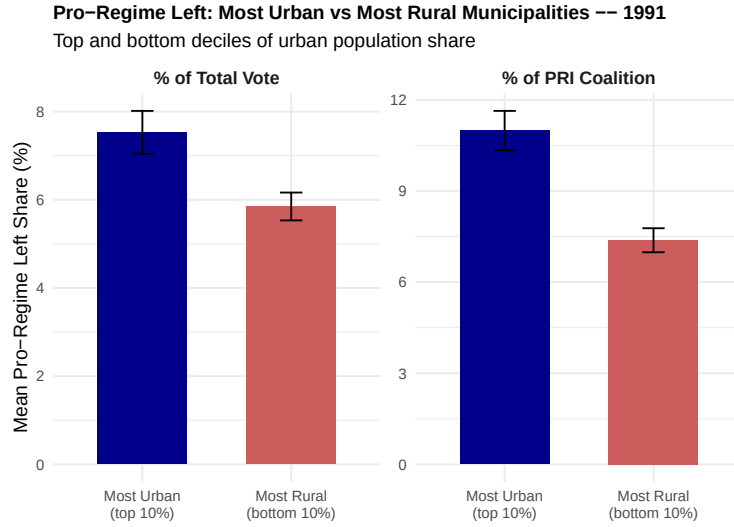


Figure 4: Urban vs. Rural: Satellite-Party Vote Share.

The erosion of the regime's electoral machine should have benefited opposition parties, whose lack of resources meant they could not rely on clientelistic mobilization. Table 6 displays the estimates of a difference-in-differences model that evaluates the association between the NAFTA shock and support for opposition parties. As Column 1 shows, opposition parties saw significant gains in regions highly exposed to the post-NAFTA export boom: a one standard deviation increase in exposure is associated with a 2.2 percentage point increase in support for the opposition. These findings are robust to the inclusion of economic and demographic controls. Moreover, as Figure 5 shows, before NAFTA, support for the opposition followed similar trends in high-exposure and low-exposure regions.

Table 6: Effect of NAFTA Exposure on Total Opposition Vote Share

Dependent Variable:	Total Opposition	
	(1)	(2)
NAFTA Exp. (std.) $\times$ Post	2.200** (1.099)	2.379** (1.016)
Demographic & Economic Controls	$\times$	$\checkmark$
Cluster FE	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$
Year FE	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$
Clusters	201	201
Elections	8	8
Observations	1,606	1,606
Mean of dep. var.	26.84	26.84

Dependent variable: vote share in percentage points. Column (2) adds the controls described in Section 5. Standard errors clustered at the cluster level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

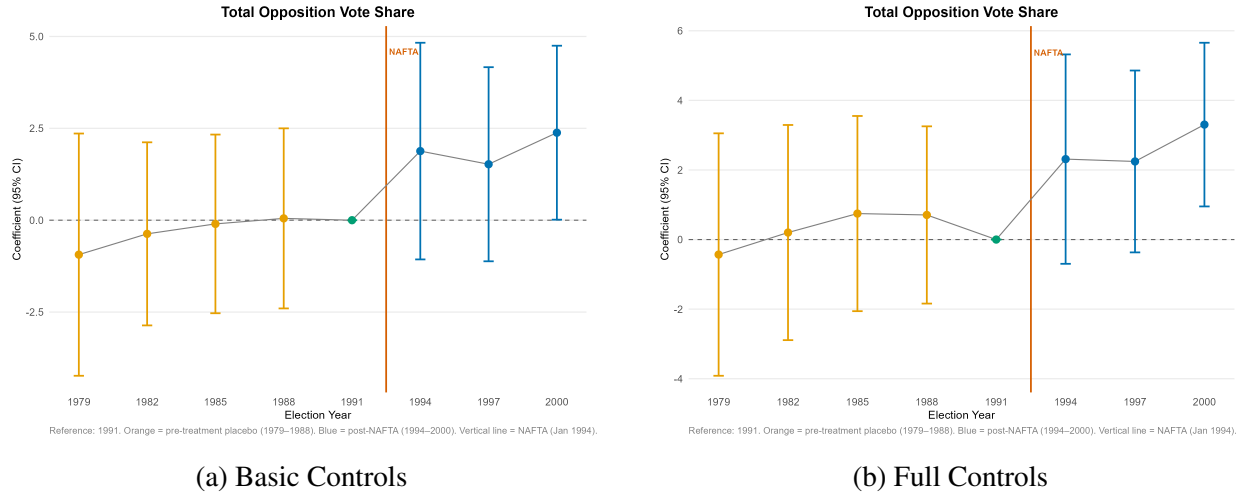


Figure 5: Event Study: Total Opposition Vote Share. Reference: 1991. Vertical line = NAFTA (Jan 1994). 95% CI.

A natural interpretation of these results within the standard economic voting framework is that voters in high-exposure regions may increasingly favor free trade and switch towards more pro-market parties. I can directly evaluate this interpretation because the two opposition parties were sharply divided on economic policy (the PAN was the most pro-market party in Mexico, while the PRD was the most leftist and protectionist). This interpretation would imply that the opposition gains should be concentrated in PAN. However, as Table 7 shows, most gains accrue to the left-wing opposition (PRD): a one standard deviation increase in exposure is associated with a 2.2 percentage point increase in support for the PRD. By contrast, higher exposure is not significantly associated with increased support for the PAN: the association between shock intensity and support for the PAN is close to zero and statistically insignificant. Figure 6 plots the corresponding event studies. Although these results contradict the predictions of the standard economic voting framework, they are consistent with the erosion of the regime’s clientelistic network. The breakdown of clientelistic ties that bound (mostly poor) voters to pro-regime parties allowed them to switch their votes towards a party with a credible programmatic commitment to implementing pro-poor policies, which is consistent with Hypotheses 3 and 4.

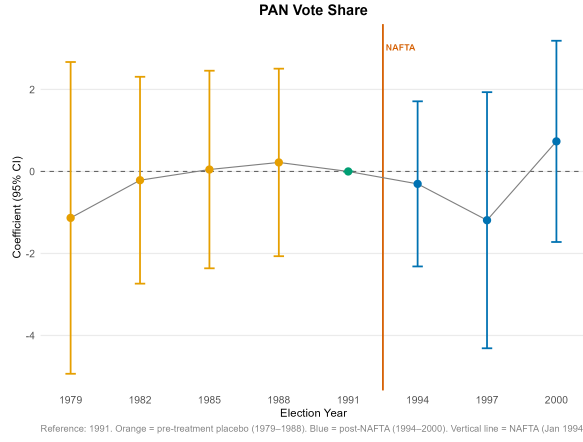
An alternative interpretation that is also consistent with the clientelism erosion mechanism is that most voters who were embedded in the regime’s electoral machine were ideologically close to the satellite parties. Indeed, clientelistic parties generally target voters who are ideologically close to them. As previously noted, a voter will participate in a patron-client exchange only if the value of the clientelistic handout exceeds the difference between the utility of voting for her preferred candidate and the utility of voting for the clientelistic party’s candidate. This difference is increasing in the ideological distance between the voter and the clientelistic party. When

the voter's preferred policy platform is substantially different from that of the clientelistic party, switching her vote entails a large utility loss, so the machine must compensate her with a more valuable handout. Conversely, a voter who is ideologically close to the clientelistic party incurs only a small utility loss from switching her vote towards the clientelistic party, so her support can be bought with a more modest handout (Stokes, 2005; Stokes et al., 2013). Thus, it is more efficient for a clientelistic party to target ideologically proximate voters, which implies that the voters embedded in a clientelistic machine have, on average, policy preferences that lie close to those of the clientelistic party. This targeting logic has two implications. First, when a positive economic shock makes voters less dependent on clientelistic handouts, they should switch towards the programmatic party whose platform is closest to that of the clientelistic party they formerly supported. Second, a clientelistic party is particularly vulnerable to a positive economic shock when it faces a direct programmatic competitor that occupies a similar ideological position, since its voters have a readily available alternative. As Section 3 discussed, the satellite parties were nominally leftist and mobilized a poor, working-class base, so the voters they bought were, on average, left-leaning low-income voters. The PRD was the direct programmatic competitor for exactly these voters. When the export shock made these voters less dependent on handouts, the PRD was therefore the closest available alternative, which could explain why the opposition gains are concentrated in the PRD rather than in the PAN. While the available data do not allow me to adjudicate between both mechanisms, both accounts are consistent with the erosion of the regime's clientelistic network and inconsistent with the standard economic voting framework, which predicts that the opposition gains should be concentrated in the PAN.

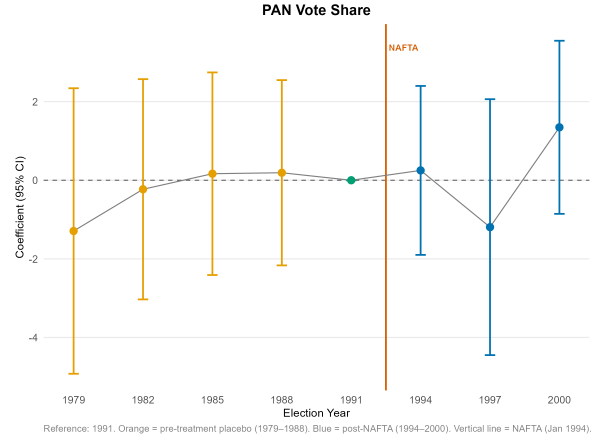
Table 7: Effect of NAFTA Exposure on Opposition Vote Share by Party

Dependent Variable:	PAN (Right)		PRD (Left)	
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
NAFTA Exp. (std.) $\times$ Post	-0.03692 (1.208)	0.3695 (1.087)	2.237** (1.069)	2.010** (0.9364)
Demographic & Economic Controls	$\times$	$\checkmark$	$\times$	$\checkmark$
Cluster FE	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$
Year FE	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$
Clusters	201	201	201	201
Elections	8	8	8	8
Observations	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606
Mean of dep. var.	17.03	17.03	9.82	9.82

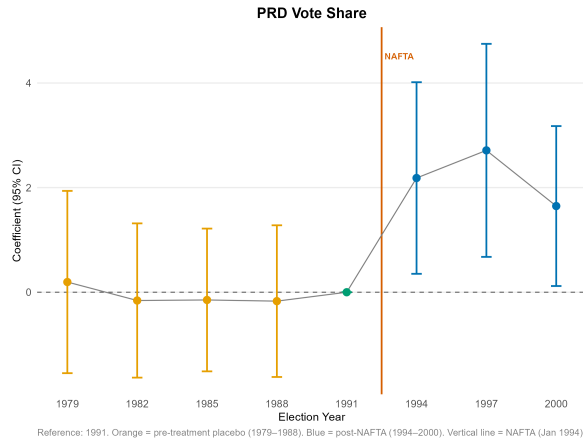
Dependent variable: vote share in percentage points. Columns (2) and (4) add the controls described in Section 5. Standard errors clustered at the cluster level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.



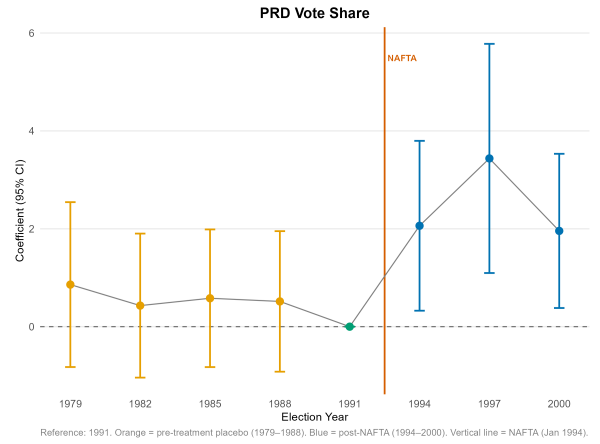
(a) PAN — Basic Controls



(b) PAN — Full Controls



(c) PRD — Basic Controls



(d) PRD — Full Controls

Figure 6: Event Study: PAN and PRD Vote Shares. Reference: 1991. Vertical line = NAFTA (Jan 1994). 95% CI. *Note:* Pre-1991 PRD results correspond to its institutional predecessors (PCM, PSUM, PMS).

7 Robustness Checks

This section shows that the paper’s findings remain consistent across a set of alternative specifications.

7.1 Municipality-level Analysis

First, I show that a municipality-level analysis produces consistent findings. Unfortunately, electoral results for the Chamber of Deputies elections held in the 1970s and 1980s are only available at the congressional-district level. However, municipality-level results are available from the 1991

election (the last pre-NAFTA election) onwards. Thus, while a municipality-level analysis makes it impossible to evaluate pre-trends, it is possible to estimate difference-in-differences models comparing the 1991 election to the three post-NAFTA elections across Mexico's 2,403 municipalities.

Tables 14, 15, and 16 in the paper's appendix show the estimates of this municipality-level analysis. The results are consistent with the paper's core cluster-level analysis: at the municipality level, the NAFTA index is strongly associated with the post-NAFTA growth in manufacturing employment (Table 14). Moreover, as in the core cluster-level analysis, Table 15 shows that higher exposure to the export shock is associated with decreased support for pro-government parties (with losses concentrated in the satellite parties) and increased support for the left-wing opposition PRD. Since the export shock was concentrated in urban municipalities (and most of Mexico's over 2,400 municipalities are highly rural), Table 15 weights each municipality by its pre-NAFTA total population in order to ensure that the estimates reflect the experience of the average voter rather than that of the average municipality. However, as Table 16 shows, the paper's core findings remain significant at conventional levels when using an unweighted municipality-level panel, although the estimated magnitudes decrease as the sample becomes dominated by highly rural municipalities.

7.2 State-level Trends

Second, as a more stringent test, I estimate difference-in-differences models that include state-by-election-year fixed effects, which allow each state to follow its own post-NAFTA trajectory so that the identifying variation comes exclusively from comparisons between high- and low-exposure regions within the same state in the same election. I conduct this analysis at the municipality level, where the median state contains 45 municipalities, rather than at the cluster level, where the median state contains five clusters and two states contain a single cluster that a state-by-election-year fixed effect would absorb entirely. As Tables 17 and 18 show, the paper's findings are robust to these specifications, which indicates that they are not driven by state-level trends or regional idiosyncrasies.

7.3 Spatial Autocorrelation and Influential Clusters

Third, I show that the paper's findings are robust to using spatial HAC standard errors. As Figure 1 shows, NAFTA exposure is geographically concentrated and neighboring clusters tend to have similar exposure values. I recompute the core specifications to allow standard errors to be spatially correlated across clusters (Conley spatial-HAC) using 100 km, 250 km, and 500 km cutoffs. Table 19 in the paper's appendix displays these estimates. The core findings remain consistent at the 100–250 km cutoffs. The 500 km cutoff yields standard errors that grow significantly such that the effect of the NAFTA index on left-wing opposition (PRD) vote share is no longer significant at

conventional levels. However, the headline findings—reduced support for pro-regime parties and increased support for the opposition—remain significant even at the 500 km cutoff.

Fourth, I show that the paper’s findings are not sensitive to dropping the most influential clusters. Because the exposure variable is right-skewed, a natural concern is that a few high-leverage clusters drive the paper’s findings. To address this concern, I identify the most extreme outlier clusters in terms of their NAFTA exposure value (after controlling for their distance to the US and their pre-NAFTA manufacturing employment share) and drop them from the sample. The results are robust to dropping the 10, 15, and 20 highest-leverage clusters (approximately 5, 7, and 10 percent of the sample, respectively): the association between shock intensity and the pro-regime, satellite-party, opposition and PRD vote shares retains its sign and remains statistically significant throughout. Tables 20–22 in Appendix B display these estimates.

7.4 Shift-Share Standard Errors

Recent research has shown that conventional standard errors can understate the sampling variability of shift-share estimators (Adão et al., 2019; Borusyak et al., 2022). Since the treatment is a weighted sum of a common set of shocks, the number of independent sources of treatment variation is effectively the number of shifts (industries) rather than the number of units in the sample. Moreover, units with similar exposure weights receive similar treatment values regardless of their geographic location, which is a form of dependence that neither clustering by unit nor spatially correlated standard errors capture. To address this concern, I recompute the core specifications with the exposure-robust standard errors of Adão et al. (2019) and the shift-level standard errors of Borusyak et al. (2022). I also report the null-imposed confidence sets of Adão et al. (2019) (AKM0), which do not rely on the asymptotic normality of the estimator and therefore remain valid even when the shift-share variable leverages only a few shifts.

Because the methods of Adão et al. (2019) and Borusyak et al. (2022) are designed for cross-sectional regressions, I collapse the panel into one observation per cluster following Bertrand et al. (2004), which reproduces the difference-in-differences coefficient exactly in a balanced panel. In this case, the coefficients are reproduced to within 0.03 percentage points because two clusters lack one election.¹⁸ Table 23 in the paper’s appendix displays these estimates. The exposure-robust standard errors are close to the clustered standard errors of the baseline specification. The paper’s main findings—reduced support for pro-regime parties, concentrated in the satellite parties, and increased support for the opposition—remain significant at the 5 percent level under the exposure-robust and shift-level standard errors, and at the 10 percent level under the AKM0 procedure.

¹⁸The results of the 1994 election in Puebla’s 4th and Veracruz’s 22nd federal districts are missing from the Federal Electoral Institute’s official records. These two missing cluster-years are why the models use 1,606 observations rather than the 1,608 of a balanced panel.

7.5 Timing of the Export Shock

As discussed in Section 3, trade was rapidly liberalized upon NAFTA's entry into force: products accounting for approximately two-thirds of the pre-NAFTA value of Mexican exports to the US were duty-free on day one, and tariffs on the remaining products, which were phased out in equal annual cuts over five or ten years, received their first cut on the same day. However, a potential concern is that, since the NAFTA Index uses the full 1991–2000 export shift, the estimated effects for the 1994 and 1997 elections may be driven by trade shifts that had not yet occurred. To address this concern, Table 30 in the paper's appendix re-estimates the electoral specifications with an “early shock” version of the index that only leverages the trade shifts realized by 1994¹⁹. By construction, the results from these models cannot be driven by regions that experienced large trade shocks after 1994 but had seen no change by the 1994 election. Reassuringly, the early exposure variable is highly correlated with the main index (0.98), which shows that the regions where exports were already booming by 1994 are the same regions that the main index identifies as most exposed. The estimates are consistent with the paper's main findings.

7.6 Migration, Inequality, and Crime

A potential confounder is that NAFTA-induced economic gains could have incentivized migration into high-exposure clusters. Thus, the political shifts could be caused by changes in voter composition rather than the erosion of clientelistic networks. I evaluate this possibility in Appendix B. While high-exposure clusters did receive significantly more migration (Table 24) relative to low-exposure clusters, the paper's findings are robust to dynamically controlling for the change in migration between 1990 and 2000—i.e., allowing clusters to follow different trends based on the change in their immigrant population between 1990 and 2000. Table 25 in the Appendix shows that the estimates are essentially unchanged.

Another potential concern is that NAFTA-induced economic growth could have increased inequality, resulting in increased demand for redistribution and more support for the programmatic left. While NAFTA did increase inequality between Mexican regions (Hanson, 1997), its local economic effects in high-exposure regions were generally pro-poor (Atkin, 2016). I use microdata on household income from the 1990 and 2000 national censuses to estimate each cluster's Gini Index before and after NAFTA's entry into force. Table 26 in Appendix B shows that high-exposure clusters did not experience a significant increase in inequality relative to low-exposure clusters. Moreover, Table 27 shows that the paper's findings are robust to dynamically controlling for the change in inequality from 1990 to 2000.

¹⁹More formally, the early index replaces the 1991–2000 change in Mexican exports to the US in each industry with the 1991–1994 change; all other terms are defined as in Section 4.1.

Finally, previous research has shown that the post-NAFTA increase in bilateral trade reduced the cost of transporting illegal drugs to the US, which resulted in increased violence along drug-trafficking routes in Mexico as cartels violently competed for control of these lucrative routes (Hidalgo et al., 2026). In this sense, if NAFTA-exposed regions saw increased crime following liberalization, the decline in pro-regime support may result from voters punishing the incumbent for worsening crime rather than a decline in clientelistic mobilization. I use the 1990 and 2000 municipality-level murder rates to estimate the level of violence in each cluster before and after NAFTA²⁰. Table 28 shows that, after controlling for each cluster’s distance to the US-Mexico border, the NAFTA Index is uncorrelated with the post-NAFTA change in the cluster’s murder rate. Moreover, in Table 29 I dynamically control for each cluster’s post-NAFTA change in murder rates—i.e., I allow clusters to follow different trajectories based on the change in their murder rate between 1990 and 2000. The paper’s estimates remain essentially unchanged after introducing this control.

8 Suggestive Evidence on Clientelism

In this section, I present suggestive evidence that NAFTA weakened the government’s clientelistic networks in regions that were highly exposed to the export shock. I use the microdata from the 2000 census—conducted only a few months before the PRI lost the presidency for the first time—to measure, for each cluster, the share of the population living in a household that received transfers from *Progresa*, the federal government’s flagship antipoverty program. *Progresa* paid a bimonthly cash transfer to poor mothers²¹, conditional on their children’s school attendance and regular visits to health clinics. Relative to the blatantly politicized and discretionary programs that preceded it, *Progresa* was markedly more programmatic and employed more transparent, rules-based eligibility criteria (De La O, 2013). Nonetheless, opposition parties widely accused PRI brokers of exploiting the program for political mobilization, and election observers documented threats to withdraw benefits from families that did not support the party (The Carter Center, 2000; Cornelius, 2002). I therefore interpret *Progresa* coverage as an imperfect proxy for a cluster’s clientelistic dependence on the government, rather than as a direct measure of clientelism.

Because *Progresa* coverage is available only in the 2000 census, I cannot estimate a difference-in-differences model and instead estimate the following cross-sectional OLS regression:

$$\text{Progresa Coverage}_c = \alpha + \beta \text{NAFTA Index}_c + \gamma' \mathbf{X}_c + \varepsilon_c,$$

²⁰In this period, murder statistics do not distinguish between drug-related murders and other forms of violence.

²¹*Progresa* designated the mother as the household’s beneficiary; transfers were paid to women rather than to men.

Where $\text{Progresa Coverage}_c$ is the share (in percentage points) of cluster c 's population living in a household with at least one *Progresa* recipient, NAFTA Index_c is the standardized exposure index, and $\mathbf{X}_c$ is a vector of demographic and economic controls. I use heteroskedasticity-robust standard errors.

Table 8: NAFTA Exposure and PROGRESA Household Coverage (2000)

Dependent Variable:	PROGRESA Coverage (%) (1)
NAFTA Index (std.)	−0.8598** (0.3343)
Mfg. Empl. Share	10.54* (6.017)
Log Dist. to Border	−0.5365 (0.3975)
Log Population	−1.527*** (0.5637)
Marginalization Index	−1.333** (0.6354)
Literacy Rate	3.616 (7.474)
Post-Primary Educ. Share	−37.43*** (5.802)
Urban Share	−2.477 (3.246)
Indigenous Share	−11.98*** (2.670)
Primary Sector Share	−91.32*** (23.32)
Secondary Sector Share	−88.61*** (23.46)
Tertiary Sector Share	−73.54*** (23.87)
Mean of dep. var.	5.61

Dependent variable: share of the cluster's population living in a household with at least one *Progresa* recipient. Robust (HC1) standard errors in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

Table 8 displays the models' results. A one standard deviation increase in exposure to the export shock is associated with a 0.9 percentage point decrease in *Progresa* coverage (about 15 percent of the mean²²). While this result can only be interpreted as suggestive evidence, it is consistent with the paper's argument that exposure to the post-NAFTA export shock is associated with decreased dependence on clientelistic linkages.

²²The variable's mean coverage of 5.6 percent of the population is certainly an undercount. Underreporting of income is widespread in Mexican censuses and surveys (Esquivel et al., 2024).

9 Evidence From the Agricultural Sector

As complementary evidence, I examine the effect of NAFTA on the agricultural sector. This analysis extends the paper's core results in three ways. First, an alternative interpretation of the paper's findings is that the political shifts were caused by the expansion of the manufacturing sector rather than by reduced dependence on clientelism. Indeed, a long tradition in political economy portrays industrial workers as particularly capable of collective action and particularly inclined to support left-wing parties (Przeworski, 1985; Przeworski and Sprague, 1986). This analysis allows me to show that the headline findings are not specific to the manufacturing sector: pro-government parties also saw substantial losses in municipalities whose agro-climatic endowments allowed them to benefit from trade liberalization.

Second, the agricultural analysis allows me to provide additional evidence on the mechanism by leveraging regional variation in the strength of the regime's local clientelistic machine. An implication of the paper's argument is that the association between a positive trade shock and decreased support for the incumbent should be stronger (weaker) in settings with high (low) levels of clientelism. At the limit, in settings with little or no clientelism, the paper's argument implies that this association should be absent. As discussed in Section 3, in rural Mexico, the regime's clientelistic networks relied heavily on a single institution: the *ejidos*, agrarian communities that received land from the state under Mexico's land reform program. *Ejido* peasants had precarious use rights that prevented them from renting, selling, or using the land as collateral, which kept them dependent on the state for access to credit and inputs. Moreover, PRI-connected commissariats held discretionary control over the allocation of social programs within *ejidos*, which allowed them to operate as the regime's local brokers (Larreguy, 2013). Thus, I use the share of agricultural land held by *ejidos* as a proxy for the regime's local clientelistic capacity. Consistent with the clientelism mechanism, the association between potential gains from trade liberalization and decreased support for pro-regime parties is significantly larger in municipalities where the *ejido* land share is high, and smaller and statistically indistinguishable from zero in municipalities where it is low.

Third, the agricultural setting allows me to separately evaluate the effects of the positive export shock in exporting regions and the negative import shock in import-competing regions. My data does not allow me to separately estimate both effects for the manufacturing sector. Post-NAFTA, supply chains in Mexican and American manufacturing became highly integrated: around 90% of the post-NAFTA growth in Mexico's manufacturing imports from the United States consisted of intermediate and capital goods rather than final consumer goods—e.g., American automotive parts destined for Mexican assembly plants. Thus, the industry-level shift in imports does not measure increased import competition: a manufacturing imports index constructed with the same

design has a 0.97 correlation with the exports-based *NAFTA Index* used in the core analysis²³. In agriculture, by contrast, export-oriented and import-competing production were concentrated in regions with different agricultural endowments, which allows me to estimate the effects of the two shocks separately.

9.1 NAFTA and Agriculture

Because of its geographic and climatic variation, Mexico produces a diverse basket of agricultural commodities. On the one hand, given its geographic endowments and low labor costs, Mexico was internationally competitive in the production of labor-intensive fruits and vegetables such as tomatoes, strawberries, and citrus (Burfisher et al., 2001). Fresh fruits and vegetables are fragile, ripen unevenly, and are sold on appearance, which often requires the produce to be picked and sorted by hand (Calvin and Martin, 2010; Gallardo and Sauer, 2018). Thus, horticultural production is intensive in (low-skill) labor, which gave Mexico a comparative advantage relative to the United States.

On the other hand, grain production—particularly maize—concentrated the majority of the country’s agricultural land and producers (Levy and van Wijnbergen, 1992; de Janvry et al., 1995). Unlike horticultural crops, cereal production is easily mechanized and generates low revenue per unit of land, which makes it intensive in land and capital relative to other crops (Pingali, 2007). Thus, the capital- and land-abundant United States—which was the world’s leading grain exporter in the 1990s—held a strong comparative advantage in these products.

Therefore, the liberalization of agricultural trade had important distributional consequences across Mexican agricultural regions. While NAFTA established longer transition periods for politically sensitive crops, agricultural trade was rapidly liberalized in practice. On the import side, the discretionary import licenses that protected Mexican staple producers were replaced by duty-free import quotas on the day NAFTA entered into force. Moreover, although the tariff on above-quota imports of maize—Mexico’s main staple crop—was scheduled to be phased out over fifteen years, the Mexican government rarely enforced it, which allowed US maize imports to surge well above the quota established by the treaty (Zahniser and Coyle, 2004). On the export side, NAFTA established common guidelines for sanitary and phytosanitary regulations—which had been a major barrier to Mexican agricultural exports—and provided institutional mechanisms through which Mexican exporters could contest these and other non-tariff barriers (Zahniser et al., 2015). In this sense, NAFTA’s entry into force was followed by a significant increase in the value of Mexican agricultural exports to the US, which nearly doubled from approximately \$3.1 billion in 1991 to

²³Because the 50 industry groups of the 1989 Industrial Census—the source used to measure pre-NAFTA regional specialization—often combine input and final-goods production in the same category, my data does not allow me to separately measure the effect of any increased import competition in manufacturing.

\$6 billion in 2000.

9.2 Measurement and Data

I conduct this analysis at the municipality level. Since Mexico is a highly urbanized country, the congressional district-based clusters used in the core analysis are predominantly urban: in the median cluster, agriculture corresponded to only 37 percent of total employment²⁴. By contrast, Mexico’s municipalities provide a much more granular unit of analysis that allows me to build an adequately powered, predominantly rural sample. I focus on predominantly rural municipalities—i.e., municipalities where a majority of the population lived in rural localities in 1990 (1,453 municipalities)²⁵.

To measure each municipality’s exposure to the post-NAFTA shifts in agricultural trade, I build a shift-share index that combines two features. First, the index leverages each municipality’s geographic endowment for growing different crops. To estimate this, I use the FAO’s Global Agro-Ecological Zones (GAEZ) crop-suitability rasters for 44 crops²⁶. I use agro-climatic suitability rather than each municipality’s observed crop mix because planting decisions are endogenous: farmers can adjust their crop portfolios in anticipation of, or in response to, the trade shock itself. A municipality’s agro-climatic endowment, by contrast, is fixed and captures its potential to shift production towards export crops. Additionally, the only source of municipality-level data on pre-NAFTA planting decisions, the 1991 Agricultural Census, only covers ten major crops and excludes several of Mexico’s prime export crops (e.g., tomatoes).

Second, for each crop, I measure the realized post-NAFTA shift in bilateral agricultural trade—i.e., the change in the value of Mexican exports to the US and of Mexican imports from the US between 1991 and 2000.²⁷ I rely on realized trade shifts rather than the tariff phaseout schedule since, as previously stated, the schedule was laxly enforced and significantly underestimates the speed of liberalization, particularly on the Mexican side. I combine municipality-level agroclimatic suitability and crop-level trade shifts to build the following index:

$$\text{NAFTA Agricultural Index}_m = \sum_j \frac{\text{Suitability}_{m,j}}{\text{Capacity}_j} \times (\Delta \text{Exports}_j - \Delta \text{Imports}_j)$$

²⁴As Table 31 shows, unlike the municipality-level analysis displayed in Table 9, a cluster-level analysis yields an insignificant “first-stage” association between the NAFTA Agricultural Index and post-NAFTA economic changes.

²⁵The section’s findings are robust to using alternative thresholds (e.g., 40%, 60%), although the effects become progressively weaker as the sample becomes less rural.

²⁶I use the FAO’s suitability estimates under low-input, rain-fed conditions.

²⁷I use UN Comtrade data, and I match each agricultural product (HS-6) to a crop using a large language model (GPT-4.1).

Where $Suitability_{m,j}$ is the average agro-ecological suitability of municipality m 's cropland for growing crop j ; $Capacity_j = \sum_m Suitability_{m,j} \times Cropland_m$ denotes the country's total capacity to grow crop j —i.e., the sum of all municipalities' suitability for crop j , weighted by their cropland area; and $\Delta Exports_j$ and $\Delta Imports_j$ correspond, respectively, to the total change (USD) in Mexican exports to the US and in Mexican imports from the US of crop j between 1991 and 2000. Intuitively, the index takes high values for municipalities whose land is well suited to growing crops in which Mexican exports to the US grew significantly after NAFTA (e.g., tomatoes), and low values for those suited to crops in which imports from the US grew significantly (e.g., maize, wheat, soy). Following Borusyak et al. (2022), all specifications dynamically control for each municipality's total capacity-adjusted suitability (i.e., the sum of $Suitability_{m,j}/Capacity_j$ across all crops) so that the identifying variation comes from the *composition* of a municipality's agro-ecological endowment rather than from some municipalities being more fertile than others. Additionally, all specifications allow electoral trends to vary with each municipality's geographic characteristics: I interact each municipality's average temperature, precipitation, and altitude with the full set of period fixed effects. Figure 7 maps the geographic distribution of this index.

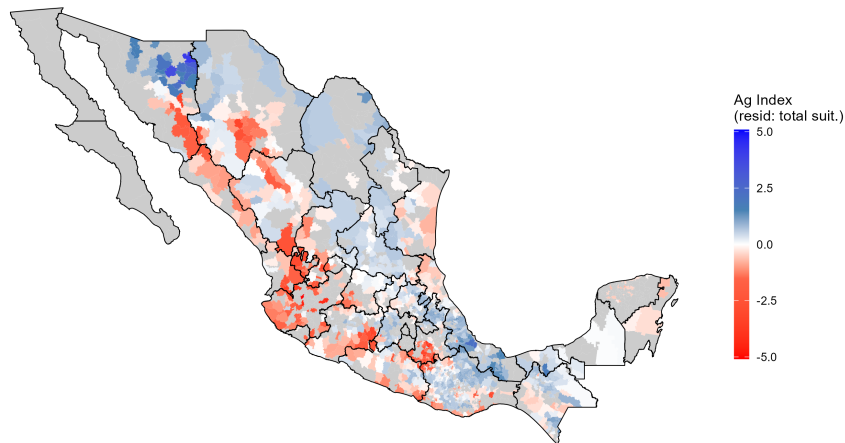


Figure 7: NAFTA Agricultural Index: Geographic Distribution. Net dollar-shift index residualized on total crop suitability across the rural municipalities in the estimation sample; municipalities outside the sample in grey. **Blue** = NAFTA winners; **Red** = NAFTA losers.

9.3 Economic Outcomes

Table 9 displays the estimates of a two-period difference-in-differences model evaluating the association between the NAFTA Agricultural Index and the change in a municipality's paid agricultural employment²⁸ from 1991 to 2007²⁹. The model also controls for each municipality's total suitability, average temperature, precipitation, and altitude, each interacted with the post-NAFTA indicator. As Column 1 shows, higher values of the NAFTA Agricultural Index are strongly associated with local gains in agricultural employment: a one standard deviation increase in the index is associated with approximately a 12 percent increase in the number of paid agricultural workers.

Table 9: NAFTA Exposure and Paid Agricultural Employment: Rural Municipalities

Dependent Variable:	log(1 + Paid Permanent Ag. Workers) 1991 vs. 2007 (1)
Net Dollar-Shift Index (std.) $\times$ Post	0.1168*** (0.04366)
Climate & Altitude Controls	✓
Observations	2,906
Municipios	1,453

Standard errors clustered at the municipality level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

9.4 Political Outcomes

I now evaluate how NAFTA affected political outcomes in predominantly rural municipalities. Table 10 displays the estimates of difference-in-differences models. The base (pre-NAFTA) period is the 1991 election. Since pre-1991 federal election results were not reported at the municipality level, I cannot evaluate pre-trends, so these findings must be interpreted cautiously. The agricultural results closely mirror the findings from the manufacturing-based analysis: pro-regime parties lost significantly more support in municipalities that were well endowed to benefit from trade liberalization—i.e., municipalities whose endowments made them suitable for producing Mexico's export crops and exposed them to little import competition. A one standard deviation increase in the NAFTA Agricultural Index is associated with a 1.8 percentage point decrease in the pro-regime vote share. As in the paper's core analysis, opposition gains are concentrated in the left-wing PRD

²⁸This variable was built using data from the 1991 and 2007 Mexican Agrarian Censuses. The variable excludes unpaid family labor.

²⁹Since the earliest post-NAFTA Mexican Agrarian Census was not conducted until 2007, I cannot evaluate the first-stage results in earlier years.

(a one standard deviation increase in the index is associated with a 1.6 percentage point increase in the PRD vote share), which is a pattern inconsistent with an economic voting interpretation in which rural voters respond to NAFTA-associated gains by switching to a more pro-market alternative.

Unlike the core manufacturing analysis, pro-government losses are concentrated in the PRI instead of the satellite parties. The regional distribution of the regime's clientelistic machine offers a plausible explanation. As discussed in Sections 3 and 6, whereas the satellite parties' base was concentrated in cities, the PRI's clientelistic machine was particularly strong in rural regions, where the land reform program allowed the PRI to build highly effective clientelistic networks that were directly controlled by PRI brokers. Insofar as rural clientelism was mostly controlled by the PRI, the party was more exposed to a positive economic shock. In municipalities well endowed to benefit from NAFTA, economic gains could have reduced peasants' dependence on the handouts provided by PRI brokers³⁰. I further discuss this interpretation in the following section.

Table 10: NAFTA Exposure and Vote Shares: Rural Municipalities

Dependent Variable:	Pro-Regime (1)	PRI % (2)	Satellite (3)	Opp. % (4)	PRD % (5)	PAN % (6)
Net Dollar-Shift Index (std.) $\times$ Post	-1.810*** (0.4604)	-2.213*** (0.5242)	0.4030 (0.2849)	1.172*** (0.3984)	1.615*** (0.3271)	-0.4433 (0.3214)
Climate & Altitude Controls	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Observations	5,795	5,795	5,795	5,795	5,795	5,795
Municipios	1,453	1,453	1,453	1,453	1,453	1,453
Elections	4	4	4	4	4	4
Mean of dep. var.	63.13	60.18	2.95	29.83	17.09	12.75

Standard errors clustered at the municipality level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

9.5 Suggestive Evidence on Clientelism: Treatment Effect Heterogeneity

If the association between export opportunities and decreased support for pro-regime parties is driven by the weakening of clientelism, then we should observe that this association is absent (stronger) in settings with little (widespread) clientelism. Given the central role communal lands (*ejidos*) played in the PRI's rural clientelistic machine, their prevalence can serve as a proxy for the

³⁰ Additionally, a 1992 reform of Mexico's agrarian law, enacted to prepare Mexican agriculture for trade liberalization, improved *ejido* farmers' property rights by granting them individual certificates over their plots and legalizing the rental of *ejido* land. While certification did not end clientelism in *ejidos* (Larreguy, 2013), stronger property rights may have facilitated exit from clientelistic networks in regions whose agricultural endowments offered farmers profitable market opportunities.

strength of clientelism at the local level. In this section, I leverage data from the 1991 Agricultural Census to estimate the strength of the PRI's clientelistic machine at the municipality level. More specifically, I measure each municipality's share of agricultural land held by *ejidos*. I then estimate a set of difference-in-differences models where I interact the NAFTA exposure index with the share of land held by *ejidos*:

$$Y_{mt} = \alpha_m + \gamma_t + \beta \cdot (\text{Index}_m \times \text{After}_t) + \theta \cdot (\text{Index}_m \times \text{After}_t \times \text{Ejido Share}_m) + \delta'(\mathbf{X}_m \times \gamma_t) + \varepsilon_{mt}$$

Where Ejido Share_m denotes municipality m 's standardized share of agricultural land held by *ejidos*, and all remaining terms are defined as in the previous specifications. The geographic controls in $\mathbf{X}_m$ (including total suitability) are also interacted with Ejido Share_m , so the interaction coefficient θ is not driven by differential trends associated with the geographic characteristics of high-*ejido* municipalities. Intuitively, θ measures how the association between NAFTA exposure and the outcome varies with the local prevalence of *ejido* land.

Figure 8 displays the estimated treatment effects for municipalities with an *ejido* land share one standard deviation above (red) and below (grey) the sample mean; Table 11 displays the models' interaction coefficients. Consistent with the clientelism mechanism, NAFTA-induced gains are strongly associated with pro-regime losses in municipalities with a high *ejido* presence. In a municipality with an *ejido* land share one standard deviation above the sample mean, a one standard deviation increase in the NAFTA Agricultural Index is associated with a 2.8 percentage point decrease in support for pro-regime parties. By contrast, in municipalities with weak clientelism (e.g., municipalities with an *ejido* land share one standard deviation below the sample mean), this association is absent, and the effect of the shock is insignificant and close to zero. These findings suggest that clientelism played a key role in the association between trade-induced economic gains and losses for incumbent parties.

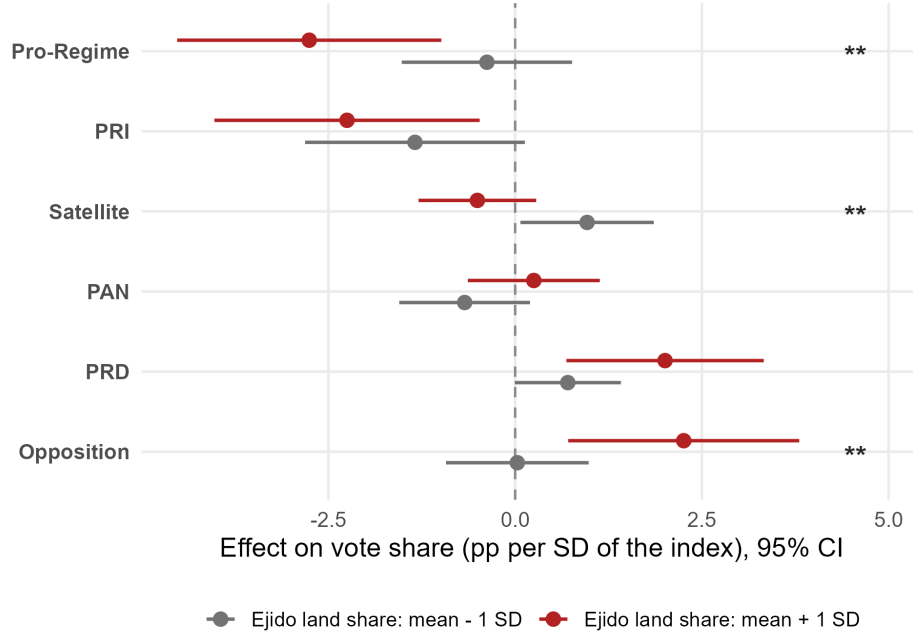


Figure 8: Effect of NAFTA Exposure by *Ejido* Land Share. Delta-method effects of the net dollar-shift index $\times$ Post at the *Ejido* land share mean -1 SD and $+1$ SD, from the continuous-interaction model with climate and altitude controls. 95% confidence intervals; stars denote the significance of the interaction term.

9.6 Separate Export and Import Shocks

Beyond providing additional evidence on the mechanism, the agricultural analysis also allows me to separately estimate the effect of the positive export shock and the negative import shock. Indeed, such a decomposition is not viable in the core analysis given the lack of granularity in my data and the high degree of supply-chain integration between Mexican and American manufacturing. By contrast, horticulture and cereal production were concentrated in different geographic regions. Additionally, agricultural imports are concentrated in final consumption goods rather than intermediate inputs, so the shift in Mexican imports from the USA does capture increased import competition. To disentangle each effect, I estimate the following indices:

$$\text{Export Index}_m = \sum_j \frac{\text{Suitability}_{m,j}}{\text{Capacity}_j} \times \Delta \text{Exports}_j$$

$$\text{Import Index}_m = \sum_j \frac{\text{Suitability}_{m,j}}{\text{Capacity}_j} \times \Delta \text{Imports}_j$$

Table 11: NAFTA Exposure and Vote Shares: *Ejido* Land-Share Interaction

Dependent Variable:	Pro-Regime (1)	PRI % (2)	Satellite (3)	Opp. % (4)	PRD % (5)	PAN % (6)
Net Dollar-Shift Index (std.) $\times$ Post	−1.567*** (0.5237)	−1.796*** (0.5642)	0.2286 (0.2740)	1.143** (0.4520)	1.356*** (0.3645)	−0.2131 (0.3208)
Net Dollar-Shift Index (std.) $\times$ Post $\times$ <i>Ejido</i> Land Share (std.)	−1.189** (0.5496)	−0.4549 (0.6115)	−0.7345** (0.3310)	1.114** (0.4752)	0.6509 (0.3999)	0.4631 (0.3138)
<i>Effect of Net Dollar-Shift Index (std.) $\times$ Post at:</i>						
<i>Ejido</i> Land Share: Mean − 1 SD	−0.3779 (0.5818)	−1.341* (0.7507)	0.9631** (0.4557)	0.02893 (0.4873)	0.7051* (0.3624)	−0.6762 (0.4467)
<i>Ejido</i> Land Share: Mean + 1 SD	−2.757*** (0.9023)	−2.251** (0.9060)	−0.5059 (0.4020)	2.257*** (0.7892)	2.007*** (0.6739)	0.2500 (0.4509)
Climate & Altitude Controls	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Observations	5,771	5,771	5,771	5,771	5,771	5,771
Municipios	1,447	1,447	1,447	1,447	1,447	1,447
Elections	4	4	4	4	4	4

Standard errors clustered at the municipality level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

Where all terms are defined as in the NAFTA Agricultural Index above—i.e., each index combines the same capacity-adjusted suitability weights with only the export or only the import shift. I estimate difference-in-differences models analogous to those in the previous subsections where I introduce both indices simultaneously instead of the net NAFTA Agricultural Index. In all specifications, I allow municipalities to follow different trajectories based on their geographic characteristics.

Table 12 displays the models' estimates. Consistent with the results based on the net NAFTA Agricultural Index and with the paper's core manufacturing analysis, higher exposure to the agricultural export boom is significantly associated with decreased support for pro-government parties. Higher exposure to the agricultural import shock, however, is significantly associated with gains for the PRI and decreased support for opposition parties. A potential interpretation of these findings is that the negative economic shock increased peasants' dependence on PRI clientelism, which paradoxically resulted in PRI support being more resilient in regions that were negatively affected by the incumbent's trade liberalization. Indeed, in the Brazilian context, Rettl (2025) finds that the sharp contraction in Brazilian exports during the first half of the 2010s increased voters' dependence on evangelical churches, which provide informal insurance against economic hardship. In turn, this increased voter dependence strengthened church leaders' ability to act as political brokers and to steer their congregations against leftist parties.

Table 12: Agricultural Export and Import Exposure and Vote Shares: Rural Municipalities

Dependent Variable:	Pro-Regime (1)	PRI % (2)	Satellite (3)	Opp. % (4)	PRD % (5)	PAN % (6)
Export Index (std.) $\times$ Post	−1.495*** (0.4809)	−1.050** (0.5147)	−0.4443 (0.2750)	1.371*** (0.4218)	1.720*** (0.3669)	−0.3492 (0.3236)
Import Index (std.) $\times$ Post	2.619*** (0.5995)	2.788*** (0.6936)	−0.1699 (0.3937)	−1.910*** (0.5225)	−2.542*** (0.4412)	0.6324 (0.4119)
Climate & Altitude Controls	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Observations	5,795	5,795	5,795	5,795	5,795	5,795
Municipios	1,453	1,453	1,453	1,453	1,453	1,453
Elections	4	4	4	4	4	4

Standard errors clustered at the municipality level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

10 Final Remarks

Globalization has produced major economic transformations in both developed and developing countries. An extensive literature documents that economic losses caused by globalization have substantially reshaped the politics of developed democracies by generating backlash against incumbents (Margalit, 2011; Colantone and Stanig, 2018a), increasing polarization (Autor et al., 2020), and strengthening populist movements (Colantone and Stanig, 2018b; Dippel et al., 2022). Yet we know comparatively little about how globalization has impacted the politics of developing countries, where international trade has likewise resulted in major economic change. This gap is compounded by the fact that political conditions in developing countries differ substantially from those of developed democracies (e.g., substantial clientelism, electoral violence, and weak party systems), which limits the generalizability of insights drawn from the developed world.

This paper contributes to addressing this gap by studying the political consequences of NAFTA in Mexico. I show that, contrary to the conventional wisdom that trade's winners reward incumbents, economic gains caused by trade can weaken incumbents in the developing world by undermining their capacity to mobilize low-income voters through state-sponsored clientelism. I argue that, in labor-abundant developing countries, trade liberalization can produce an income shock that is (i) pro-poor, since new employment is concentrated in labor-intensive, low-skill industries; (ii) irrevocable, since the gains lie outside the incumbent's control; and (iii) durable, since liberalization is hard to reverse. These three features reduce voters' dependence on clientelistic machines, which allows them to vote for the programmatic parties aligned with their policy preferences instead of the incumbent's machine.

To evaluate this argument, I exploit geographic variation in NAFTA exposure through two complementary shift-share designs based on crop suitability in rural municipalities and pre-NAFTA industrial specialization in manufacturing regions. In both sectors, I find that exposure to NAFTA-induced economic gains is associated with decreased support for Mexico's incumbent clientelistic parties. Moreover, in rural municipalities, this association is concentrated in regions where the regime's clientelistic networks were strongest. Consistent with the paper's argument, electoral gains are concentrated in the left-wing PRD, a party that lacked strong clientelistic networks but offered pro-poor policies that appealed to the low-income voters NAFTA freed from clientelistic dependence. Since the two scope conditions that underpin these findings—a labor-abundant economy, so that trade liberalization benefits low-income workers by creating new employment opportunities, and an incumbent that depends on clientelism to mobilize them—are common in the developing world, the dynamic documented here is likely to generalize well beyond the single case of NAFTA-era Mexico.

These findings have important policy implications. Clientelism is widespread in the developing

world and a major hurdle for democratic accountability and representation: incumbents who can leverage the state's resources to mobilize large numbers of voters are largely insulated from electoral pressure (Stokes et al., 2013; Hicken, 2011). Moreover, the existence of large clientelistic networks implies that a large set of voters embedded in these networks, often the most economically vulnerable, cannot express their genuine policy preferences through their vote. Since clientelistic arrangements depend on voters' economic insecurity, a natural question is what can break these links. This paper shows that free trade can play a role in undermining clientelistic dependence in the developing world. This finding is highly relevant in a context of rising protectionism and growing automation, trends that could have a major negative impact on export-based manufacturing employment in the developing world. An open question is how such changes will affect the politics of developing countries, and whether they will result in the reestablishment of clientelistic dependence.

The paper's findings also raise a further question: if free trade erodes the incumbent's clientelistic mobilization capacity, why would an incumbent from a clientelistic regime ever liberalize trade? The Mexican case suggests that factional dynamics play a key role. Since the regime's electoral machine was largely controlled by President Salinas' internal opponents, its weakening was detrimental to the regime as a whole but rational for Salinas, who could use liberalization to weaken his coalitional rivals. This logic suggests that incumbents have incentives to pursue or resist liberalization depending on how clientelistic capacity is distributed within their ruling coalition. Future research can analyze how clientelism influences the trade policies adopted by incumbents in the developing world.

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A Evidence from the DFS Surveillance Files

This section presents evidence from the DFS surveillance files that documents the *satellite* parties' clientelistic practices. The Federal Security Directorate was the Federal Government's main intelligence agency from its 1947 founding until its dissolution in 1985. In practice, the DFS functioned as the regime's political police, and its activities included the surveillance of activists, unions, and politicians from all political parties—including the PRI and its allied *satellite* parties (Aguayo Quezada, 2001). Throughout its nearly four decades of operation, the DFS compiled an extensive collection of intelligence reports and index cards on individuals and organizations across the political spectrum. Importantly for the purposes of this paper, DFS agents regularly followed candidates during electoral campaigns and reported to the Federal government on their activities. After the PRI lost the presidency in 2000, the DFS intelligence files were transferred to Mexico's national archive, the Archivo General de la Nación (AGN), and are now publicly available through the archive's digital repository.

Such intelligence files constitute a valuable primary source documenting the campaigning activities of all political parties in this period.³¹ The DFS intelligence files extensively document the *satellite* parties' reliance on handout-based clientelistic mobilization. For instance, one file (AGN-DFS F57/C6-182) reports on a "political-cultural event" (*acto político cultural*) organized by the Authentic Party of the Mexican Revolution (PARM) in Cuilapan de Guerrero, Oaxaca, in the lead-up to the 1985 federal elections. During the event, the party raffled food packages (*despensas*) and livestock among the attendees:

"Cuilapan de Guerrero, Oax.- This afternoon, in this locality's sports court, a political-cultural event was held, which was organized by the regional committee of the party in question and led by JAIME CASTELLANOS FRANCO, the party's president, with approximately 2,000 people in attendance. This event was organized with the purpose of proselytizing on behalf of the party and as promotion for the upcoming federal elections. The event included a series of dances and **raffles of food packages, three head of cattle, and six goats among those attending the event.** Their leader urged them to stay attentive to the nomination of the party's candidates for federal legislators [...]"³²

³¹The records cited in this appendix are DFS index cards (*fichas de consulta*) held at the Archivo General de la Nación, Mexico City, Fondo DFS, versión pública (hereafter AGN-DFS, cited by each card's archival reference). All translations are my own, and boldface emphasis within the quotations is added. The original Spanish of each quoted passage is transcribed in the accompanying footnote, correcting minor typographical errors in the typescript.

³²AGN-DFS F57/C6-182 (exp. 020-037-004, 6-Feb-1985). The original Spanish reads: "Cuilapan de Guerrero, Oax.- Hoy por la tarde, en la cancha municipal de esta localidad, se llevó a cabo un acto político cultural, organizado por el comité regional del partido de referencia, encabezados por el Presidente del Partido Prof. JAIME CASTELLANOS FRANCO y con asistencia de aproximadamente 2,000 personas.- Este acto fue con el objeto de hacer labor

Another file (AGN-DFS F15/C5-2218) is the personal card of Alejandro Méndez Avendaño, the Popular Socialist Party (PPS) candidate in an extraordinary mayoral election held in Teziutlán, Puebla, in August 1978. The file states that Méndez Avendaño's campaigning activities included handing out gifts in the town's marginalized neighborhoods:

“On the 22nd of the current month, he [Méndez Avendaño] visited households and handed out gifts in neighborhoods on the periphery.”³³

Moreover, file AGN-DFS F58/C4-3040 documents the Socialist Workers Party (PST)³⁴ distributing clothing and food in Mexico City in the aftermath of the September 1985 earthquake. According to the file, the party would only distribute goods to party members and non-members who agreed to join the party:

“MARIANO LÓPEZ RAMOS, Secretary of Organization of this Party's Central Committee, stated that, because the premises of this Party's Municipal Committee in the Cuauhtémoc borough collapsed, a new operations center will be installed in said borough, at 116 Ecuador Street, where the needs of PST militants will be attended to, supplying clothing and provisions to those who require them, he further added that persons who are not members of the Party will be attended to on the condition that they join it; he lastly noted that, given the serious damage suffered by the Central Committee's premises in the Hipódromo Condesa neighborhood, the location where those offices will operate will be determined shortly.”³⁵

The above examples serve to illustrate the transactional clientelistic strategies used by the *satellite* parties. Table 13 lists several additional DFS files that further document the *satellite* parties' use of clientelism and their links to brokers in marginalized communities.

de proselitismo en favor de su partido y como promoción a las próximas elecciones federales habiéndose realizado una serie de bailables y rifas de despensas, tres reses y 6 chivos entre los asistentes a dicho acto.- Su dirigente los exhortó estar pendiente de la nominación de sus candidatos a Legisladores federales [...]” The entry ends mid-sentence at the edge of the card.

³³AGN-DFS F15/C5-2218 (exp. 100-19-1-78, L-66, H-72, 23-Aug-1978). The original Spanish reads: “El 22 actual realizó visitas domiciliarias y entregó obsequios en diferentes colonias de la periferia.”

³⁴In 1987, the Socialist Workers Party was renamed the Party of the Cardenist Front for National Reconstruction (PFCRN), which is how it is referred to throughout the paper.

³⁵AGN-DFS F58/C4-3040 (exp. 009-037-018, 26-Sep-1985). The original Spanish reads: “MARIANO LÓPEZ RAMOS, Srio. de Organización del Comité Central de este Partido, manifestó que debido a que el Local del Comité Mpal. de este Partido en la Delegación Política Cuauhtémoc se derrumbó, se instalará un nuevo centro de operaciones en dicha Delegación, en la calle de Ecuador No. 116, donde se atenderán las necesidades de los militantes del PST, que los abastecerá de ropa y víveres a quienes lo requieran, agregando que las personas que no sean del Partido, serán atendidas con la condición de que se integren al mismo, por último señaló que en virtud de los serios daños que sufrió el local del Comité Central en la Col. Hipódromo Condesa, próximamente se determinará el lugar en donde operarán dichas oficinas.”

Table 13: Additional DFS cards documenting the *satellite* parties' clientelistic practices

Card	Party	Year	Content
F17/C7-1090	PARM	1963	A PARM veterans' group announces the party will distribute clothing and food packages in Mexico City to party affiliates.
F19/C10-2502	PARM	1963	A leader of the PARM's women's wing announces the distribution of used clothing and food packages in the party's headquarters.
F19/C10-2504	PARM	1963–64	The same leader delivers food packages to the party's female members and announces the party will distribute toys for affiliates' children. She later becomes a PARM congressional candidate.
F4/C7-3135	PPS	1978	Reports that both the PPS and PRI candidates in Teziutlán's 1978 municipal election made house visits and handed out gifts in peripheral neighborhoods.
F30/C9-2289	PST	1982	Personal card of a PST congressional candidate who led a group of squatters (<i>colonos</i>).
F58/C8-840	PST	1982	In Xalisco, Nayarit, a PST candidate leads 150 squatters (<i>colonos</i>) demanding the expropriation of the invaded plot they occupy, following an agreement with the governor.
F35/C1-2781	PST	1984	In Lázaro Cárdenas, Michoacán, the PST's housing secretary distributes 300 land lots to party members, prompting the intervention of the federal land-regularization agency.
F68/C7-329	PST	1984	Organizational card of a PST-affiliated street-vendors' union operating in Jalisco's low-income neighborhoods.
F58/C5-2325	PST	1984	The PST's Villahermosa committee presses the state housing agency to process the party's applications for housing lots and to deliver building materials.
F43/C7-18	PST	1985	Personal card of a Tabasco PST leader recording a meeting of some 100 street vendors affiliated with the party in protest against a municipal crackdown on street vending.

B Robustness Tables

This appendix reports the full results for the robustness checks summarized in Section 7.

B.1 Municipality-Level Analysis

This appendix presents the municipality-level analysis discussed in Section 7. Table 14 displays the municipality-level first stage: a two-period difference-in-differences model of log manufacturing employment in the 1989 and 1999 Industrial Censuses on the NAFTA index interacted with the post-NAFTA indicator, with and without the full set of demographic and economic controls and with and without population weights. Tables 15 and 16 display the estimates of the municipality-level electoral difference-in-differences models for the four elections held between 1991 and 2000. While Mexico has over 2,400 municipalities, a large proportion of them are scarcely populated. Thus, Table 15 weights each municipality by its pre-NAFTA population, and Table 16 reports the unweighted estimates. The estimates are consistent with the paper's core analysis.

Table 14: First Stage at the Municipality Level: NAFTA Index and Manufacturing Employment

Dependent Variable:	Log Manufacturing Employment			
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
NAFTA Index (std.) $\times$ Post	0.2295*** (0.0282)	0.1857*** (0.0282)	0.2283*** (0.0559)	0.2385*** (0.0581)
Mfg. Empl. Share $\times$ Post	-4.5278*** (0.3430)	-3.8234*** (0.3766)	-4.1182*** (0.7522)	-4.5279*** (0.8439)
Log Dist. to Border $\times$ Post	-0.1508*** (0.0214)	-0.1461*** (0.0258)	-0.1034*** (0.0337)	-0.1032*** (0.0350)
Demographic & Economic Controls	$\times$	$\checkmark$	$\times$	$\checkmark$
Weighted by 1990 Population	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$	$\times$	$\times$
Municipality FE	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$
Year FE	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$
Municipalities	2,151	2,151	2,151	2,151
Periods	2	2	2	2
Observations	4,302	4,302	4,302	4,302

Dependent variable: $\log(1 + \text{manufacturing employment})$, measured in the 1989 and 1999 Industrial Censuses. Columns (2) and (4) add the controls described in Section 5. Columns (1) and (2) are weighted by 1990 municipal population. Standard errors clustered at the municipality level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

Table 15: Robustness: Municipality-Level Analysis

Dependent Variable:	PRD % (1)	Opp. % (2)	PAN % (3)	PRI % (4)	Pro-Regime (5)	Satellite (6)
NAFTA Exp. (std.) $\times$ Post	1.448*** (0.4523)	1.560** (0.6339)	0.1123 (0.5389)	-0.04791 (0.4607)	-1.644** (0.6565)	-1.596** (0.6686)
Demographic & Economic Controls	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Municipality FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Year FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Municipalities	2,403	2,403	2,403	2,403	2,403	2,403
Elections	4	4	4	4	4	4
Observations	9,574	9,574	9,574	9,574	9,574	9,574
Mean of dep. var.	16.91	33.01	16.10	57.20	60.12	2.92

Dependent variable: vote share in percentage points. All specifications include the controls described in Section 5. Estimates are weighted by 1990 municipal population. Standard errors clustered at the municipality level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

Table 16: Robustness: Municipality-Level Analysis (Unweighted)

Dependent Variable:	PRD % (1)	Opp. % (2)	PAN % (3)	PRI % (4)	Pro-Regime (5)	Satellite (6)
NAFTA Exp. (std.) $\times$ Post	0.3849* (0.2268)	0.4037* (0.2133)	0.01880 (0.3165)	-0.1556 (0.1758)	-0.5927*** (0.2000)	-0.4372*** (0.1466)
Demographic & Economic Controls	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Municipality FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Year FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Municipalities	2,403	2,403	2,403	2,403	2,403	2,403
Elections	4	4	4	4	4	4
Observations	9,574	9,574	9,574	9,574	9,574	9,574
Mean of dep. var.	16.91	33.01	16.10	57.20	60.12	2.92

Dependent variable: vote share in percentage points. All specifications include the controls described in Section 5. Standard errors clustered at the municipality level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

B.2 State-by-Year Fixed Effects

Tables 17 and 18 add state-by-year fixed effects to the population-weighted and unweighted municipality-level models. In these models, identification comes from within-state variation in exposure.

Table 17: Robustness: Municipality-Level Analysis with State-by-Year Fixed Effects (Population-Weighted)

Dependent Variable:	PRD % (1)	Opp. % (2)	PAN % (3)	PRI % (4)	Pro-Regime (5)	Satellite (6)
NAFTA Exp. (std.) $\times$ Post	0.5178** (0.2516)	1.129*** (0.3286)	0.6114* (0.3334)	-0.4035 (0.2739)	-1.389*** (0.3154)	-0.9854*** (0.3032)
Demographic & Economic Controls	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Municipality FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
State $\times$ Year FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Municipalities	2,403	2,403	2,403	2,403	2,403	2,403
Elections	4	4	4	4	4	4
Observations	9,574	9,574	9,574	9,574	9,574	9,574
Mean of dep. var.	16.91	33.01	16.10	57.20	60.12	2.92

Dependent variable: vote share in percentage points. Year fixed effects are replaced by state-by-year fixed effects. All specifications include the controls described in Section 5. Estimates are weighted by 1990 municipal population. Standard errors clustered at the municipality level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

Table 18: Robustness: Municipality-Level Analysis with State-by-Year Fixed Effects (Unweighted)

Dependent Variable:	PRD % (1)	Opp. % (2)	PAN % (3)	PRI % (4)	Pro-Regime (5)	Satellite (6)
NAFTA Exp. (std.) $\times$ Post	0.2757** (0.1209)	0.3706 (0.2285)	0.09490 (0.2653)	-0.1775 (0.2174)	-0.5538*** (0.1898)	-0.3764*** (0.1215)
Demographic & Economic Controls	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Municipality FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
State $\times$ Year FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Municipalities	2,403	2,403	2,403	2,403	2,403	2,403
Elections	4	4	4	4	4	4
Observations	9,574	9,574	9,574	9,574	9,574	9,574
Mean of dep. var.	16.91	33.01	16.10	57.20	60.12	2.92

Dependent variable: vote share in percentage points. Year fixed effects are replaced by state-by-year fixed effects. All specifications include the controls described in Section 5. Standard errors clustered at the municipality level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

B.3 Spatial Standard Errors

As a robustness check, I re-estimate the electoral specifications with the full set of controls using Conley spatial-HAC standard errors at distance cutoffs of 100, 250, and 500 km.

Table 19: NAFTA Exposure and Vote Share: Spatial (Conley) Standard Errors — Full Controls

Dependent Variable:	PRD % (1)	Opp. % (2)	PAN % (3)	PRI % (4)	Pro-Regime (5)	Satellite (6)
<i>Panel A: Conley cutoff = 100 km</i>						
NAFTA Exp. (std.) $\times$ Post	2.010* (1.053)	2.379** (0.9763)	0.3695 (1.293)	-0.1788 (1.241)	-2.787** (1.102)	-2.608** (1.124)
<i>Panel B: Conley cutoff = 250 km</i>						
NAFTA Exp. (std.) $\times$ Post	2.010* (1.030)	2.379*** (0.8530)	0.3695 (0.8977)	-0.1788 (0.8015)	-2.787*** (0.8136)	-2.608** (1.162)
<i>Panel C: Conley cutoff = 500 km</i>						
NAFTA Exp. (std.) $\times$ Post	2.010 (1.357)	2.379*** (0.8404)	0.3695 (0.8556)	-0.1788 (1.020)	-2.787*** (0.9356)	-2.608* (1.566)
Demographic & Economic Controls	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Cluster FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Year FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Clusters	201	201	201	201	201	201
Elections	8	8	8	8	8	8
Observations	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606

Each panel reports Conley spatial-HAC standard errors with the indicated distance cutoff; point estimates are identical across panels. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

B.4 Influential Clusters

The following Tables show that the paper's findings are robust to dropping the 10, 15, and 20 most extreme outlier clusters after controlling for the cluster's manufacturing employment share and distance to the Mexico-US border.

Table 20: Robustness: Dropping the Ten Highest-Leverage Clusters

Dependent Variable:	PRD % (1)	Opp. % (2)	PAN % (3)	PRI % (4)	Pro-Regime (5)	Satellite (6)
NAFTA Exp. (std.) $\times$ Post	5.261** (2.527)	4.701* (2.394)	-0.5594 (2.144)	-2.025 (2.098)	-5.757** (2.507)	-3.732** (1.862)
Demographic & Economic Controls	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Cluster FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Year FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Clusters	191	191	191	191	191	191
Elections	8	8	8	8	8	8
Observations	1,526	1,526	1,526	1,526	1,526	1,526
Mean of dep. var.	10.11	26.37	16.27	61.43	67.86	6.43

The sample excludes the 10 clusters with the largest standardized residuals of the NAFTA index. Standard errors clustered at the cluster level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

Table 21: Robustness: Dropping the Fifteen Highest-Leverage Clusters

Dependent Variable:	PRD % (1)	Opp. % (2)	PAN % (3)	PRI % (4)	Pro-Regime (5)	Satellite (6)
NAFTA Exp. (std.) $\times$ Post	7.598*** (2.742)	5.312** (2.389)	-2.287 (2.421)	-2.750 (2.115)	-6.684*** (2.466)	-3.935* (2.056)
Demographic & Economic Controls	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Cluster FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Year FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Clusters	186	186	186	186	186	186
Elections	8	8	8	8	8	8
Observations	1,486	1,486	1,486	1,486	1,486	1,486
Mean of dep. var.	10.13	26.12	15.99	61.65	68.11	6.46

The sample excludes the 15 clusters with the largest standardized residuals of the NAFTA index. Standard errors clustered at the cluster level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

Table 22: Robustness: Dropping the Twenty Highest-Leverage Clusters

Dependent Variable:	PRD % (1)	Opp. % (2)	PAN % (3)	PRI % (4)	Pro-Regime (5)	Satellite (6)
NAFTA Exp. (std.) $\times$ Post	10.48*** (2.748)	5.432** (2.602)	-5.051** (2.422)	-2.797 (2.505)	-7.798*** (2.723)	-5.002** (2.094)
Demographic & Economic Controls	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Cluster FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Year FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Clusters	181	181	181	181	181	181
Elections	8	8	8	8	8	8
Observations	1,446	1,446	1,446	1,446	1,446	1,446
Mean of dep. var.	10.14	25.99	15.85	61.80	68.25	6.45

The sample excludes the 20 clusters with the largest standardized residuals of the NAFTA index. Standard errors clustered at the cluster level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

B.5 Exposure-Robust Inference

Table 23 reports standard errors and confidence sets that account for the shift-share structure of the NAFTA index.

Table 23: Exposure-Robust Inference: Core Results with Full Controls

Dependent Variable:	PRD % (1)	Opp. % (2)	PAN % (3)	PRI % (4)	Pro-Regime (5)	Satellite (6)
NAFTA Exp. (std.) $\times$ Post	2.010**	2.379**	0.3695	-0.1788	-2.787***	-2.608**
Clustered SE	(0.9364)	(1.016)	(1.087)	(1.005)	(1.063)	(1.114)
AKM SE	[1.112]	[0.9645]	[1.216]	[0.7471]	[0.9569]	[0.6332]
BHJ SE	{1.439}	{1.040}	{1.248}	{0.7218}	{1.100}	{1.010}
AKM0 95% set	[0.05, 6.84]	[-0.43, 4.92]	[-4.91, 2.51]	[-2.38, 1.76]	[-5.31, -0.01]	[-4.12, -0.58]
AKM0 <i>p</i> -value	0.045	0.072	0.786	0.826	0.050	0.031
Demographic & Economic Controls	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Cluster FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Year FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Clusters	201	201	201	201	201	201
Elections	8	8	8	8	8	8
Observations	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606
Mean of dep. var.	9.82	26.84	17.03	61.05	67.41	6.36

Dependent variable: vote share in percentage points. The sample includes all 201 clusters, observed in the eight legislative elections held between 1979 and 2000. All specifications control for the covariates listed in Table 4, each interacted with the post-NAFTA indicator. Standard errors clustered at the cluster level in parentheses; exposure-robust standard errors of Adão, Kolesár and Morales (2019) in square brackets; shift-level standard errors of Borusyak, Hull and Jaravel (2022) in braces. The AKM0 row reports the 95 percent confidence set from the null-imposed procedure of Adão, Kolesár and Morales (2019), and its *p*-value. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$ (clustered).

B.6 Migration

I evaluate the association between exposure to the post-NAFTA export shock and changes in migration patterns. I use the microdata from the 1990 and 2000 censuses to estimate each cluster's share of immigrants. I then estimate a two-period difference-in-differences model where the share of migrant population is the dependent variable. Table 24 shows that the NAFTA index is associated with increased migration.

Table 24: NAFTA Exposure and Immigration

Dependent Variable:	Immigrant Population Share		
	(1)	(2)	(3)
NAFTA Exp. (std.) $\times$ Post	0.0079*** (0.0028)	0.0069** (0.0028)	0.0069** (0.0030)
Manufacturing Share $\times$ Post	✓	✓	✓
Demographic & Economic Controls	×	✓	✓
Cluster & Year FE	✓	✓	✓
SE Clustered by	Cluster	Cluster	State
Observations	402	402	402

Dependent variable: share of the cluster's population born in a different state or abroad. Standard errors clustered at the cluster (columns 1–2) or state (column 3) level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

To evaluate whether increased migration explains the political shifts in high-exposure regions, I control for the interaction of $\Delta_{1990-2000}\text{Migrant Pop.} \times \text{After}_t$. In other words, I allow clusters to follow different trajectories based on the magnitude of the post-NAFTA growth in migration. Table 25 displays the corresponding estimates of a set of difference-in-differences models that include this control. The results remain consistent.

Table 25: Robustness: Migration Control

Dependent Variable:	PRD %	Opp. %	PAN %	PRI %	Pro-Regime	Satellite
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)
NAFTA Exp. (std.) $\times$ Post	2.019** (0.9614)	2.504** (1.012)	0.4849 (1.054)	−0.3848 (1.050)	−2.925*** (1.066)	−2.540** (1.164)
Demographic & Economic Controls	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Cluster FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Year FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Clusters	201	201	201	201	201	201
Elections	8	8	8	8	8	8
Observations	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606
Mean of dep. var.	9.82	26.84	17.03	61.05	67.41	6.36

All specifications additionally control for the 1990–2000 change in the cluster's immigrant population share interacted with the post-NAFTA indicator. Standard errors clustered at the cluster level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

B.7 Inequality

Similarly, I use the 1990 and 2000 census microdata to evaluate whether NAFTA exposure increased within-cluster inequality. I use each cluster's income microdata to estimate the cluster's Gini Index in 1990 and 2000. I then estimate a two-period difference-in-differences model where the cluster-level Gini Index is the dependent variable. Table 26 shows that the NAFTA index has no effect on local inequality. Moreover, Table 27 shows that dynamically controlling for $\Delta_{1990-2000} \text{Gini}_c \times \text{After}_t$ barely affects the magnitude and significance of the estimates.

Table 26: NAFTA Exposure and the Change in Income Inequality

Dependent Variable:	Δ Income Gini (1990–2000)		
	(1)	(2)	(3)
NAFTA Exp. (std.)	0.0062 (0.0045)	0.0039 (0.0053)	0.0039 (0.0053)
Manufacturing-Share Control	✓	✓	✓
Demographic & Economic Controls	×	✓	✓
SE Clustered by	Cluster	Cluster	State
Observations	201	201	201

Dependent variable: 1990–2000 change in the cluster's income Gini index. Standard errors clustered at the cluster (columns 1–2) or state (column 3) level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

Table 27: Robustness: Inequality Control

Dependent Variable:	PRD % (1)	Opp. % (2)	PAN % (3)	PRI % (4)	Pro-Regime (5)	Satellite (6)
NAFTA Exp. (std.) $\times$ Post	2.036** (0.9314)	2.346** (1.029)	0.3100 (1.094)	−0.1345 (0.9930)	−2.781*** (1.067)	−2.646** (1.094)
Demographic & Economic Controls	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Cluster FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Year FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Clusters	201	201	201	201	201	201
Elections	8	8	8	8	8	8
Observations	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606
Mean of dep. var.	9.82	26.84	17.03	61.05	67.41	6.36

All specifications additionally control for the 1990–2000 change in the cluster's income Gini index interacted with the post-NAFTA indicator. Standard errors clustered at the cluster level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

B.8 Crime

I evaluate the association between exposure to the post-NAFTA export shock and changes in violent crime. I use INEGI's vital statistics on murders by municipality of occurrence to compute each cluster's murder rate per 100,000 inhabitants in 1990 and 2000. I then estimate a two-period difference-in-differences model where the murder rate is the dependent variable. Table 28 shows that the NAFTA index is not significantly associated with the post-NAFTA change in murder rates.

Table 28: NAFTA Exposure and Crime

Dependent Variable:	Homicide Rate (per 100,000)		
	(1)	(2)	(3)
NAFTA Exp. (std.) $\times$ Post	0.5499 (1.3720)	−0.9414 (1.3683)	−0.9414 (1.3956)
Manufacturing Share $\times$ Post	✓	✓	✓
Demographic & Economic Controls	×	✓	✓
Cluster & Year FE	✓	✓	✓
SE Clustered by	Cluster	Cluster	State
Observations	402	402	402

Dependent variable: murders per 100,000 inhabitants. Standard errors clustered at the cluster (columns 1–2) or state (column 3) level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

To evaluate whether changes in violence explain the political shifts in high-exposure regions, I control for the interaction of $\Delta_{1990-2000}\text{Murder Rate} \times \text{After}_t$. In other words, I allow clusters to follow different trajectories based on the magnitude of the post-NAFTA change in their murder rate. Table 29 displays the corresponding estimates of a set of difference-in-differences models that include this control. The results remain consistent.

Table 29: Robustness: Crime Control

Dependent Variable:	PRD %	Opp. %	PAN %	PRI %	Pro-Regime	Satellite
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)
NAFTA Exp. (std.) $\times$ Post	1.950** (0.9310)	2.358** (1.008)	0.4079 (1.104)	−0.3008 (0.9574)	−2.771*** (1.056)	−2.470** (0.9965)
Demographic & Economic Controls	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Cluster FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Year FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Clusters	201	201	201	201	201	201
Elections	8	8	8	8	8	8
Observations	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606
Mean of dep. var.	9.82	26.84	17.03	61.05	67.41	6.36

All specifications additionally control for the 1990–2000 change in the cluster's murder rate per 100,000 inhabitants interacted with the post-NAFTA indicator. Standard errors clustered at the cluster level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

B.9 Timing of the Export Shock

Table 30: Manufacturing Analysis: Early Shock (1991–1994 Export Shifts)

Dependent Variable:	PRD % (1)	Opp. % (2)	PAN % (3)	PRI % (4)	Pro-Regime (5)	Satellite (6)
<i>Panel A: Baseline controls</i>						
Early NAFTA Index, 1991–94 (std.) $\times$ Post	2.489** (1.178)	2.429* (1.250)	−0.05982 (1.512)	−0.8879 (1.173)	−2.932** (1.424)	−2.044 (1.350)
<i>Panel B: Full controls</i>						
Early NAFTA Index, 1991–94 (std.) $\times$ Post	2.255** (1.031)	2.669** (1.137)	0.4132 (1.407)	−0.9070 (1.053)	−3.217*** (1.226)	−2.310* (1.302)
Cluster FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Year FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Clusters	201	201	201	201	201	201
Elections	8	8	8	8	8	8
Observations	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606
Mean of dep. var.	9.82	26.84	17.03	61.05	67.41	6.36

Dependent variable: vote share in percentage points. Treatment: the early NAFTA index, constructed with the 1991–1994 change in Mexican exports to the US instead of the 1991–2000 change. Panel B adds the controls described in Section 5. Standard errors clustered at the cluster level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

C Distribution of the Exposure Variable

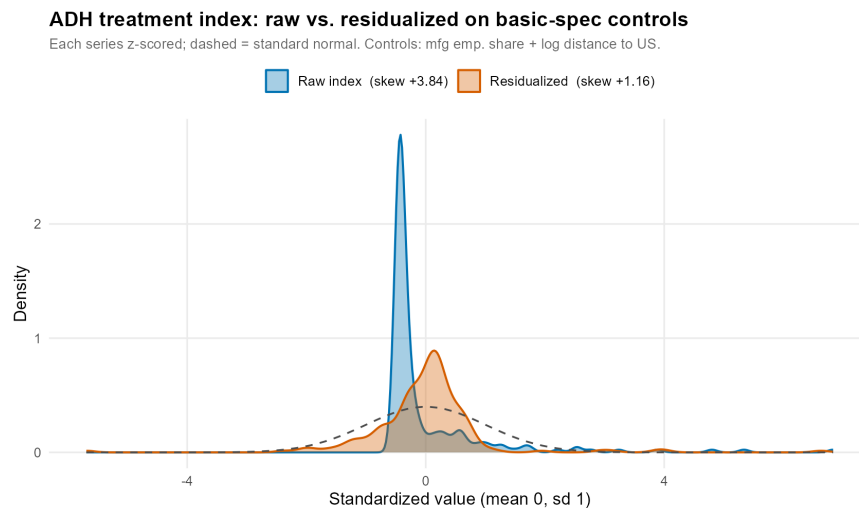


Figure 9: Distribution of the NAFTA index, raw versus residualized. The raw NAFTA index is heavily right-skewed, whereas the residualized variation—i.e. the index after conditioning on manufacturing employment share and distance to the Mexico-US border—is much more symmetric. Both series are standardized to have mean zero and unit variance.

D Agricultural Analysis: Additional Results

Table 31: NAFTA Exposure and Paid Agricultural Employment: Rural Clusters

Dependent Variable:	log(1 + Paid Permanent Ag. Workers) 1991 vs. 2007 (1)
Net Dollar-Shift Index (std.) $\times$ Post	−0.0007497 (0.07445)
Climate & Altitude Controls	✓
Observations	156
Clusters	78
Standard errors clustered at the cluster level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.	

E Full Regression Specifications

This appendix reports the full-coefficient versions of the paper's core specifications.

Table 32: First Stage: NAFTA Exposure and Manufacturing Employment (Full Coefficients)

Dependent Variable:	Log Manufacturing Employment	
	(1)	(2)
NAFTA Index (std.) $\times$ Post	0.1532*** (0.0502)	0.1353** (0.0523)
Mfg. Empl. Share $\times$ Post	-4.7761*** (0.6072)	-5.5718*** (0.7265)
Log Dist. to Border $\times$ Post	-0.1858*** (0.0384)	-0.1894*** (0.0449)
Log Population $\times$ Post		-0.0528 (0.0531)
Marginalization Index $\times$ Post		-0.1368* (0.0810)
Literacy $\times$ Post		-0.6841 (0.9304)
Post-Primary Share $\times$ Post		-2.5993*** (0.8789)
Urban Share $\times$ Post		-0.0992 (0.3129)
Indigenous Share $\times$ Post		0.3266 (0.2933)
Primary Sector Share $\times$ Post		4.1436 (2.5349)
Secondary Sector Share $\times$ Post		6.4207** (2.5953)
Tertiary Sector Share $\times$ Post		5.0890* (2.6604)
Demographic & Economic Controls	$\times$	$\checkmark$
Cluster FE	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$
Year FE	$\checkmark$	$\checkmark$
Clusters	201	201
Periods	2	2
Observations	402	402
R^2	0.975	0.979

Dependent variable: $\log(1 + \text{manufacturing employment})$, in 1989 and 1999. Column (2) adds the controls described in Section 5. Standard errors clustered at the cluster level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

Table 33: Effect of NAFTA Exposure on Vote Share — Baseline Specification (Full Coefficients)

Dependent Variable:	Pro-Regime Total (1)	PRI (2)	Satellite Parties (3)	Total Opposition (4)	PAN (Right) (5)	PRD (Left) (6)
NAFTA Exp. (std.) $\times$ Post	−2.592** (1.207)	−0.1301 (1.073)	−2.462** (1.124)	2.200** (1.099)	−0.03692 (1.208)	2.237** (1.069)
Mfg. Empl. Share $\times$ Post	60.02*** (14.25)	36.42*** (12.56)	23.60** (10.11)	−48.35*** (13.28)	5.649 (14.13)	−54.00*** (16.18)
Log Dist. to Border $\times$ Post	−3.107*** (0.9003)	−2.737*** (0.8793)	−0.3700 (0.8819)	3.051*** (0.8382)	−0.8196 (0.6741)	3.871*** (0.9236)
Cluster FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Year FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Clusters	201	201	201	201	201	201
Elections	8	8	8	8	8	8
Observations	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606
Mean of dep. var.	67.41	61.05	6.36	26.84	17.03	9.82

Baseline specification: treatment plus the two design controls described in Section 5. Standard errors clustered at the cluster level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

Table 34: Effect of NAFTA Exposure on Vote Share — Full Specification (Full Coefficients)

Dependent Variable:	Pro-Regime Total (1)	PRI (2)	Satellite Parties (3)	Total Opposition (4)	PAN (Right) (5)	PRD (Left) (6)
NAFTA Exp. (std.) $\times$ Post	-2.787*** (1.063)	-0.1788 (1.005)	-2.608** (1.114)	2.379** (1.016)	0.3695 (1.087)	2.010** (0.9364)
Mfg. Empl. Share $\times$ Post	50.68*** (16.70)	14.03 (14.52)	36.65*** (11.85)	-49.21*** (15.78)	0.7370 (16.46)	-49.95*** (18.54)
Log Population $\times$ Post	4.631*** (1.296)	2.982*** (0.9820)	1.649 (1.064)	-4.288*** (1.343)	-1.350 (1.059)	-2.938** (1.433)
Log Dist. to Border $\times$ Post	-3.382*** (1.004)	-3.044*** (0.8702)	-0.3384 (0.9779)	3.331*** (0.9200)	-0.3648 (0.6712)	3.696*** (1.012)
Marginalization Index $\times$ Post	-2.844* (1.543)	-2.347 (1.423)	-0.4972 (1.040)	1.256 (1.433)	0.3963 (1.550)	0.8602 (1.605)
Literacy $\times$ Post	14.04 (11.94)	-4.273 (11.74)	18.31* (10.57)	-24.56* (12.62)	21.74* (12.06)	-46.30*** (13.30)
Post-Primary Share $\times$ Post	-39.52*** (19.56)	-20.22 (18.91)	-19.30 (14.65)	19.84 (18.07)	-64.12*** (18.81)	83.96*** (20.87)
Urban Share $\times$ Post	-8.682* (5.219)	-2.264 (5.133)	-6.418 (3.918)	14.80*** (4.637)	4.888 (5.323)	9.914 (6.558)
Indigenous Share $\times$ Post	12.16** (4.784)	8.252 (6.092)	3.909 (5.075)	-18.00*** (4.155)	-2.374 (4.762)	-15.62*** (5.399)
Primary Sector Share $\times$ Post	41.36 (52.73)	-11.70 (55.85)	53.06 (44.17)	-72.51 (50.82)	149.4*** (51.83)	-221.9*** (58.69)
Secondary Sector Share $\times$ Post	49.64 (53.78)	-0.05343 (56.48)	49.69 (43.52)	-77.81 (52.02)	162.3*** (52.78)	-240.2*** (59.38)
Tertiary Sector Share $\times$ Post	58.28 (56.62)	4.866 (57.74)	53.42 (46.43)	-85.84 (54.49)	173.1*** (53.72)	-258.9*** (64.13)
Cluster FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Year FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Clusters	201	201	201	201	201	201
Elections	8	8	8	8	8	8
Observations	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606	1,606
Mean of dep. var.	67.41	61.05	6.36	26.84	17.03	9.82
R^2	0.900	0.832	0.621	0.899	0.831	0.784

Full specification: treatment plus the full set of controls described in Section 5. Standard errors clustered at the cluster level in parentheses. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.